# Microelectronics

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# Contents


1 Microelectronics . . . . . 1

I Signal . . . . . 1

i Signal . . . . . 1

ii Signal source . . . . . 1

iii Cascade . . . . . 1

iv Transducer . . . . . 1

v Signal processing . . . . . 1

vi Coupling capacitor . . . . . 1

vii Symbol convention . . . . . 1

viii Differential and common-mode signal . . . . . 2

ix Input and output impedance . . . . . 2

x Differential and common-mode impedance . . . . . 2

xi Differential and common-mode transfer function . . . . . 2

xii Operating point, operation point, Q-point, quiescent point, or bias point . . . . . 2

xiii Incremental resistance . . . . . 2

II Amplifier (amp) . . . . . 3

i Amplifier . . . . . 3

ii Circuit symbol . . . . . 3

iii Two-port model . . . . . 3

iv Circuit model of voltage amplifier . . . . . 3

v Circuit model of current amplifier . . . . . 3

vi Circuit model of transconductance amplifier . . . . . 4

vii Circuit model of transresistance amplifier . . . . . 4

viii Amplifier gain in decibels (dB) . . . . . 5

ix Saturation . . . . . 5

x S parameter . . . . . 5

xi Unilateral amplifier . . . . . 5
xii Power supply . . . . . 6
xiii Classification based on frequency response . . . . . 6
xiv Output impedance . . . . . 6
xv Input impedance . . . . . 6
xvi Power gain . . . . . 7
III Operational Amplifier (op amp or op-amp) . . . . . 7
i Definition . . . . . 7
ii Ideal op amp . . . . . 7
iii Internally compensated op amp . . . . . 8
iv Feedback configuration . . . . . 8
v Inverting amplifier . . . . . 8
vi Transresistance amplifier . . . . . 10
vii Weighted summing amplifier . . . . . 10
viii Non-inverting amplifier . . . . . 10
ix Unity gain amplifier, unity gain buffer, buffer amplifier, or voltage follower . . . . . 12
x Difference amplifier or differential amplifier . . . . . 12
xi Instrumentation amplifier (INA) . . . . . 14
xii Inverting configuration with general impedance . . . . . 15
xiii Inverting integrator or Miller integrator . . . . . 15
xiv Inverting integrator or Miller integrator feasible configuration . . 16
xv Inverting differentiator . . . . . 17
xvi Inverting differentiator feasible configuration . . . . . 17
xvii Large-signal operation . . . . . 18
xviii Slew rate (SR) . . . . . 18
IV Band Theory (能帶理論) and Semiconductor . . . . . 18
i Electronic band structure or band structure . . . . . 18
ii (Energy) band (能帶) . . . . . 18

iii Fermi level (費米能階) . . . . . 18
iv Work function (功函數) . . . . . 19
v Density or concentration . . . . . 19
vi Number density of states of the allowed energy level per unit volume per unit energy interval . . . . . 19
vii Occupancy probability . . . . . 19
viii Number density of occupied states per unit volume per unit energy interval . . . . . 19
ix Finding Fermi energy . . . . . 19
x Ohmic contact . . . . . 20
xi Metals . . . . . 20
xii Bands for semiconductors and insulators . . . . . 20
xiii Insulator . . . . . 20
xiv Semiconductor . . . . . 20
xv Energy and effective mass (有效質量) of electrons . . . . . 21
xvi Effective mass of electrons at difference levels . . . . . 21
xvii (Electron) hole (（電子）電洞/空穴) . . . . . 21
xviii Carriers (載子) of semiconductors . . . . . 22
xix Effective densities of states . . . . . 22
xx Carrier generation . . . . . 22
xxi Carrier recombination (載子複合) and electroluminescence (電致發光/電激發光) . . . . . 22
xxii Exciton (激子) . . . . . 23
xxiii Photovoltaic effect (光生伏打效應/光伏效應)/Internal photoelectric effect (內光電效應) . . . . . 23
xxiv Thermal generation . . . . . 23
xxv Thermal equilibrium . . . . . 23
xxvi Doping (摻雜) . . . . . 24
xxvii n-typed (n 型) semiconductors or n materials . . . . . 24
xxviii p-typed (p 型) semiconductors or p materials . . . . . 25

V Current flow in semiconductors . . . . . 25
i Drude model of drift velocity and drift current . . . . . 25
ii Diffusion current . . . . . 26
VI pn or p-n junction at equilibrium . . . . . 26
i Physical structure . . . . . 26
ii Abrupt junction . . . . . 27
iii (Carrier-)depletion/space-charge region/layer/zone and diffusion current . . . . . 27
iv Drift current . . . . . 28
v Current equilibrium with open-circuit terminals . . . . . 29
vi Voltage equilibrium with short-circuit terminals . . . . . 29
vii (Junction) built-in voltage . . . . . 29
viii Carrier concentration under no external voltage . . . . . 29
ix Width of and charge stored in depletion region . . . . . 30
x One-sided junction. . . . . 31
VII pn junction with applied voltage . . . . . 31
i Reverse bias and forward bias . . . . . 31
ii Width of and charge stored in depletion region . . . . . 31
iii Current-voltage relationship . . . . . 31
VIII Diode . . . . . 33
i Circuit symbol . . . . . 33
ii Ideal diode . . . . . 33
iii Limiting and protection circuit . . . . . 33
iv Junction diode . . . . . 34
IX Forward-bias region . . . . . 34
i Forward-bias region . . . . . 34
ii Exponential model . . . . . 34
iii Constant-voltage-drop model . . . . . 35
iv Ideal-diode model . . . . . 35

v Small signal model . . . . . 35
vi Solving procedure . . . . . 36
X Reverse-bias region without breakdown . . . . . 36
i Saturation current or scale current. . . . . 36
ii Reverse current . . . . . 36
XI Reverse/junction breakdown . . . . . 37
i Reverse/junction breakdown . . . . . 37
ii Mechanisms. . . . . 37
iii Avalanche effect . . . . . 37
iv Zener effect. . . . . 37
XII Capacitive effects in pn junction . . . . . 38
i Depletion or junction capacitance . . . . . 38
ii Diffusion capacitance . . . . . 39
XIII Diode voltage regulator . . . . . 41
i Voltage regulator. . . . . 41
ii Forward-biased diode voltage regulator . . . . . 41
iii Zener diode voltage regulator . . . . . 42
XIV Diode rectifier . . . . . 43
i DC power supply . . . . . 43
ii Half-wave rectifier . . . . . 44
iii Full-wave rectifier with center-tapped transformer . . . . . 44
iv (Four-diode) bridge rectifier . . . . . 44
XV (Enhance-mode) MOSFET (Metal-oxide-semiconductor field-effect transistor) . . . . . 45
i Physical structure of NMOS (transistor)/n-channel MOSFET/FET . . 45
ii Cutoff region . . . . . 46
iii Inducing n-channel . . . . . 46
iv Linear approximation of triode region under small drain-to-source voltage . . . . . 47
v Triode region . . . . . 47

vi Saturation region . . . . . 48
vii Saturation region channel-length modulation . . . . . 48
viii PMOS (transistor)/p-channel MOSFET/FET . . . . . 49
ix CMOS (complementary MOS). . . . . 50
x Circuit symbol . . . . . 50

# 1 Microelectronics

## I Signal

### i Signal

A signal is a function that conveys information about a phenomenon. Signal processing is usually most conveniently performed by electronic systems on voltage or current signals, especially the former. Only voltage and current signals are studied here.

### ii Signal source

A signal source is typically represented in the Thévenin form, a voltage source in a series connection with a resistance, or the Norton form, a current source in a parallel connection with a resistance.

### iii Cascade

Output of a component as the input of another.

### iv Transducer

A transducer is a device that convert a signal to a voltage or current signal or vice versa.

### v Signal processing

Signal processing includes analog signal processing (ASP), analog-to-digital converter (ADC), digital signal processor (DSP), digital-to-analog converter (DAC), amplifier, etc.

### vi Coupling capacitor

A capacitor connected in series between stages to pass AC signal while blocking DC.

### vii Symbol convention

- Lowercase character with uppercase subscript means total signal, e.g. $i_C(t)$.
- Lowercase character with lowercase subscript means AC signal, e.g. $i_c(t)$.
- Uppercase character with uppercase subscript means DC signal, e.g. $I_C$.
- Uppercase character with lowercase subscript means peak signal, e.g. $I_c$.

Their relation is

$$i_C(t) = i_c(t) + I_C$$

$$i_c(t) = I_c \sin(\omega t + \varphi)$$

### viii Differential and common-mode signal

For two input signals, the differential signal (AC signal) is the difference between them, and the common-mode signal (DC signal) is the algebraic average of them.

### ix Input and output impedance

For a component's input, input impedance is the impedance relative to ground as seemed from the input.

For a component's output, output impedance is the impedance relative to ground as seemed from the input.

### x Differential and common-mode impedance

For two input terminals, the differential input impedance is the input impedance relative to ground as seemed by them when a ideal source connects them directly.

For two input terminals, the common-mode input impedance is the input impedance relative to ground as seemed by them when an ideal source's output connects both of them.

### xi Differential and common-mode transfer function

For two input terminals, the differential transfer function is the transfer function when they are connected to $\frac{1}{2}$ differential input signal and $-\frac{1}{2}$ differential input signal respectively.

For two input terminals, the common-mode transfer function is the transfer function when an ideal source's output connecting both of them is treated as input signal.

### xii Operating point, operation point, Q-point, quiescent point, or bias point

The steady-state DC voltage and current values that an electronic component processing time-varying signals is set to operate around is called bias point $Q$. Voltage and current at the bias point is called bias (voltage and current). A bias circuit is a portion of the device's circuit that supplies this steady current or voltage. A component in the bias circuit is called biasing.

### xiii Incremental resistance

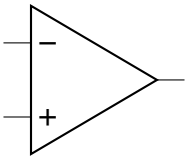
The incremental resistance of a device at a bias point is $\frac{\mathrm{d}v}{\mathrm{d}i}$ at the point.

# II Amplifier (amp)

## i Amplifier

An electronic device which amplifies an electrical signal by a scale called amplifier gain $A$ and optionally convert voltage signal to current signal or vice versa.

## ii Circuit symbol




## iii Two-port model

An amplifier can be modeled as a two port model, where an one input port and one output port is related by the amplifier, which acts as a controlled source controlled by the input port voltage or current which enforces voltage or current on the output port.

## iv Circuit model of voltage amplifier

A voltage amplifier draws current from a source $v_s$ with internal resistance $R_s$ with input resistance $R_i$ and voltage $v_{in}$ across it and supplies $v_c = \mu v_{in}$ to a load network with output resistance $R_o$ and load $R_L$, where $\mu$, also denoted $A_{vo}$, is open-loop voltage gain factor.

$$\frac{v_{in}}{v_s} = \frac{R_i}{R_s + R_i}$$

$$\frac{v_c}{v_{in}} = \mu$$

$$\frac{v_{out}}{v_c} = \frac{R_L}{R_o + R_L}$$

Voltage gain:

$$A_v = \frac{v_{out}}{v_{in}} = \mu \frac{R_i R_L}{(R_s + R_i)(R_o + R_L)}$$

$|A| < |\mu|$ due to loading effects.

A good amplifier requires small loading effect:

$$R_i \gg R_s, \quad R_o \ll R_L, \quad A_v \approx \mu$$

## v Circuit model of current amplifier

A current amplifier draws current from a current source $i_s$ with internal resistance $R_s$ in parallel with input resistance $R_i$ and current $i_{in}$ through it and supplies $i_c = \beta i_{in}$ by

CCCS to a load network with output resistance $R_o$ in parallel and load $R_L$, where $\beta$, also denoted $A_{cs}$, is short-circuit current gain factor.

$$\frac{i_{in}}{i_s} = \frac{R_s}{R_s + R_i}$$

$$\frac{i_c}{i_{in}} = \beta$$

$$\frac{i_{out}}{i_c} = \frac{R_o}{R_o + R_L}$$

Current gain:

$$A_c = \frac{i_{out}}{i_{in}} = \beta \frac{R_s R_o}{(R_s + R_i)(R_o + R_L)}$$

$|A| < |\beta|$ due to loading effects.

A good amplifier requires small loading effect:

$$R_i \ll R_s, \quad R_o \gg R_L, \quad A_c \approx \beta$$

### vi Circuit model of transconductance amplifier

A transconductance amplifier draws current from a voltage source $v_s$ with internal resistance $R_s$ in series with input resistance $R_i$ and current $i_{in}$ through it and supplies $i_c = g v_{in}$ by VCCS to a load network with output resistance $R_o$ in parallel and load $R_L$, where $\mu$ is open-loop transconductance factor.

$$\frac{v_{in}}{v_s} = \frac{R_i}{R_s + R_i}$$

$$\frac{i_c}{v_{in}} = g$$

$$\frac{i_{out}}{i_c} = \frac{R_o}{R_o + R_L}$$

Gain:

$$A_g = \frac{i_{out}}{v_{in}} = g \frac{R_i R_o}{(R_s + R_i)(R_o + R_L)}$$

$|A| < |g|$ due to loading effects.

A good amplifier requires small loading effect:

$$R_i \gg R_s, \quad R_o \gg R_L, \quad A_g \approx g$$

### vii Circuit model of transresistance amplifier

A transresistance amplifier draws current from a current source $i_s$ with internal resistance $R_s$ in parallel with input resistance $R_i$ and current $i_{in}$ through it and supplies

$v_c = ri_{in}$ by CCVS to a load network with output resistance $R_o$ in series and load $R_L$, where $r$ is short-circuit transresistance factor.

$$\frac{i_{in}}{i_s} = \frac{R_s}{R_s + R_i}$$

$$\frac{v_c}{i_{in}} = r$$

$$\frac{v_{out}}{v_c} = \frac{R_L}{R_o + R_L}$$

Gain:

$$A_r = \frac{v_{out}}{i_{in}} = \beta \frac{R_s R_L}{(R_s + R_i)(R_o + R_L)}$$

$|A| < |r|$ due to loading effects.

A good amplifier requires small loading effect:

$$R_i \ll R_s, \quad R_o \ll R_L, \quad A_c \approx r$$

### viii Amplifier gain in decibels (dB)

A power gain $A_p$ in dB is defined as

$$G_p = 10 \log_{10}(A_p)$$

A voltage gain $A_v$ in dB is defined as

$$G_v = 20 \log_{10}(A_v)$$

A current gain $A_c$ in dB is defined as

$$G_c = 20 \log_{10}(A_c)$$

### ix Saturation

The linear characteristic only remains within a range. A positive and negative saturation levels can be observed.

### x S parameter

If the energy enters through port $i$ and emerges from port $j$, the S parameter is named $S_{ji}$.

### xi Unilateral amplifier

An unilateral amplifier is an amplifier in which the signal transfer is effectively one-way, that is, the output signal is only dependent on the input signal but not what is connected to the output terminal. That is for each output port $j$ and each input port $i$, $S_{ij} = 0$.

### xii Power supply

To amplify signal, power supplies are needed, but often omitted in the diagram.

- $V_{CC+}$ or $V_{CC}$: positive supply voltage, denoted on the + side of an op-amp or omitted;
- $V_{CC-}$ or $-V_{EE}$: negative supply voltage, denoted on the − side of an op-amp or omitted.

The DC power delivered is the sum of power from the positive and negative power supply terminals $V_{CC}$ and $V_{EE}$

$$P_{DC} = V_{CC}I_{CC} + V_{EE}I_{EE}$$

Suppose input and output signals have power $P_I$ and $P_L$.

$$P_{DC} + P_I = P_L + P_{\text{dissipated}}$$

where $P_{\text{dissipated}}$ is the power dissipated.

### xiii Classification based on frequency response

A band-pass amplifier is also called tuned amplifier. A low-pass amplifier is also called DC amplifier. A amplifier directly coupled with a coupling capacitor, called capacitively coupled, is called AC amplifier.

### xiv Output impedance

In Laplace domain, for an amplifier with gain $A = \frac{V_o}{V_i}$ and output impedance $Z_o$ driving a load impedance $Z_L$, the output voltage appears across the load $V_L$ is:

$$V_L = V_o \frac{Z_L}{Z_o + Z_L},$$

and the gain as seemed from the load $A_L = \frac{V_L}{V_i}$ is:

$$A_L = A \frac{Z_L}{Z_o + Z_L},$$

and the power output to the load is

$$P_L = \frac{{V_L}^2}{Z_L}$$

### xv Input impedance

In Laplace domain, for an amplifier with input impedance $Z_i$, the power input is:

$$P_i = \frac{{V_i}^2}{Z_i}$$

### xvi Power gain

For an amplifier with gain $A$, input impedance $Z_i$, and output impedance $Z_o$ driving a load impedance $Z_L$, the power gain (Laplace domain) is:

$$G_P = \frac{P_L}{P_i} = {A_L}^2 \frac{Z_i}{Z_L} = \frac{Z_i Z_L}{\left(Z_o + Z_L\right)^2}$$

## III Operational Amplifier (op amp or op-amp)

### i Definition

An op amp has five terminals:

- $v_+$: non-inverting input voltage of the terminal at the + sign;
- $v_-$: inverting input voltage of the terminal at the − sign;
- $v_o$: output voltage of the terminal at the opposite side of inputs;
- $V_{CC+}$ or $V_{CC}$: positive supply voltage, denoted on the + side of an op-amp or omitted;
- $V_{CC-}$ or $-V_{EE}$: negative supply voltage, denoted on the − side of an op-amp or omitted.

$$v_o = A(v_+ - v_- - v_{os})$$

where $A$ is (differential) open-loop gain or open-circuit gain, and $v_{os}$ is input offset voltage.

$$v_{ld} = v_+ - v_-$$
$$v_{lcm} = \frac{v_+ + v_-}{2}$$

### ii Ideal op amp

- Infinite input impedance: No signal current flowing into $v_+$ and $v_-$.
- Infinite open-loop gain.
- Infinite bandwidth: The open-loop gain remains constant in all frequencies.
- Zero output impedance: The amplifier is unilateral.
- Zero input offset voltage: $v_{os} = 0$, which implies zero common-mode gain, i.e., infinite common-mode rejection.

This is a linear element with inputs $v_+$ and $v_-$ and output $v_o$.

$v_o$ may be any voltage since $A = \infty$ and $0 * \infty$ can be any number in $[0, \infty]$ in limit sense.

The open-loop gain of a real op amp is finite and dependent on frequency.

### iii Internally compensated op amp

An internally compensated op amp is am op amp whose open-loop transfer function $A(s)$ is STC low-pass filter to ensure the op amp is stable,

$$A(s) = \frac{A_0}{1 + \frac{s}{\omega_b}} = \frac{\omega_t}{s + \omega_b}, \quad \omega_t = A_0 \omega_b,$$

where $A_0 \gg 1$ is DC gain, $\omega_b$ is 3 dB bandwidth, and $\omega_t$ is approximately the frequency of which the gain $|A|$ reach unity (0 dB):

$$|A(j\omega)| = \frac{A_0}{\sqrt{1 + \left(\frac{\omega}{\omega_b}\right)^2}} = 1$$

$$A_0{}^2 = 1 + \left(\frac{\omega}{\omega_b}\right)^2$$

$$\omega = \sqrt{A_0{}^2 - 1}\omega_b \approx A_0 \omega_b$$

For $\omega \gg \omega_b$,

$$|A(j\omega)|\,\omega \approx A_0 \omega_b$$

The non-angular frequency $f_t = \frac{\omega_t}{2\pi}$ is usually specified on the op-amp data sheet as the unity-gain bandwidth or gain-bandwidth product (GBW, GBWP, GBP, or GB). Such op amp is said to have a single-pole model since the single pole dominates the amplifier responses, also called dominant pole.

### iv Feedback configuration

To have stable signal, op amp in a circuit is connected with a negative feedback configuration, which consists of the op amp and a connection from $v_o$ to either of the input terminals with a resistance on it, called feedback connection. When the feedback connection connects to $v_-$, it is called inverting configuration. When the feedback connection connects to $v_+$, it is called non-inverting configuration.

We can construct a virtual short circuit between $v_+$ and $v_-$ since it will becomes $v_+ = v_-$ immediately due to the feedback.

### v Inverting amplifier

An inverting amplifier consists of an op amp where input voltage $v_i$ is connected to $v_-$ through an input resistance $R_i$ (current from $v_i$ to $v_-$), $v_+$ is connected to ground, and $v_o$ is fed back to $v_-$ through a feedback resistance $R_f$ (current from $v_-$ to $v_o$).

$$v_+ = v_- = 0$$

$$i_i = \frac{v_i}{R_i} = i_f = -\frac{v_o}{R_f}$$

$$v_o = -\frac{R_f}{R_i} v_i$$

The closed-loop gain $G$ is defined as

$$G = \frac{v_o}{v_i} = -\frac{R_f}{R_i}$$

The feedback factor $\beta$ is defined as

$$\beta = \frac{1}{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_i}} = \frac{1}{1 - G}$$

Effect of finite open-loop gain:

$$v_+ = 0$$

$$v_o = -A v_-$$

$$i_i = \frac{v_i - v_-}{R_i} = \frac{v_i + \frac{v_o}{A}}{R_i} = i_f = -\frac{v_o + \frac{v_o}{A}}{R_f}$$

$$G = \frac{v_o}{v_i} = \frac{-\frac{R_f}{R_i}}{1 + \frac{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_i}}{A}} = \frac{G_{\text{ideal}}}{1 + \frac{1 - G_{\text{ideal}}}{A}} = \frac{G_{\text{ideal}}}{1 + \frac{1}{A\beta}}$$

$$\lim_{A \to \infty} G = -\frac{R_f}{R_i} = G_{\text{ideal}}$$

For single-pole model $A(s) = \frac{A_0}{1 + \frac{s}{\omega_b}}$ with $A_0 \gg 1 + \frac{R_f}{R_i}$ and $\omega_t = A_0 \omega_b$:

$$\begin{aligned}
G &= \frac{-\frac{R_f}{R_i}}{1 + \frac{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_i}}{A}} \\
&= \frac{-\frac{R_f}{R_i}}{1 + \frac{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_i}}{A_0} + \frac{\frac{s}{\omega_t}}{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_i}}} \\
&\approx \frac{-\frac{R_f}{R_i}}{1 + \frac{\frac{s}{\omega_t}}{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_i}}} \\
&\approx \frac{G_{\text{ideal}}}{1 + \frac{s}{\frac{\omega_t}{1 - G_{\text{ideal}}}}} \\
&\approx \frac{G_{\text{ideal}}}{1 + \frac{s}{\omega_t \beta}}
\end{aligned}$$

which is a low-pass STC filter with 3 dB bandwidth $\frac{\omega_t}{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_i}} = \omega_t \beta$ and DC gain $-\frac{R_f}{R_i} = G_{\text{ideal}}$.

### vi Transresistance amplifier

A transresistance amplifier consists of an op amp where input current $i_i$ is connected to $v_-$, $v_+$ is connected to ground, and $v_o$ is fed back to $v_-$ through two resistances $R_o$ (current from $x$ to $v_o$) and $R_f$ (current from $v_-$ to $x$) in series connection, with the node $x$ between $R_o$ and $R_f$ connected to ground through a resistance $R_g$ (current from $x$ to ground).

$$v_x = -R_f i_i$$

$$i_g = -\frac{R_f}{R_g} i_i$$

$$i_o = \left(1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g}\right) i_i$$

$$v_o = -R_f i_i - R_o i_o = -\left(R_f + R_o + \frac{R_f R_o}{R_g}\right) i_i$$

$$\frac{v_o}{i_i} = -\left(R_f + R_o + \frac{R_f R_o}{R_g}\right)$$

### vii Weighted summing amplifier

A weighted summing amplifier consists of an op amp, input voltages $v_1, v_2, \ldots, v_n$, $n$ input resistors $R_1, R_2, \ldots, R_n$, and a feedback resistor $R_f$, where for any $k \in \mathbb{N} \wedge k \leq n$, $v_k$ is connected to $v_-$ through $R_k$, $v_+$ is connected to ground, and $v_o$ is fed back to $v_-$ through $R_f$.

$$i_k = \frac{v_k}{R_k}$$

$$\sum_{k=1}^{n} i_k = i_f = \frac{-v_o}{R_f}$$

$$v_o = -R_f \sum_{k=1}^{n} \frac{v_k}{R_k}$$

When $R_k = R$ for all $k \in \mathbb{N} \wedge k \leq n$:

$$v_o = -\frac{R_f}{R} \sum_{k=1}^{n} v_k$$

### viii Non-inverting amplifier

A non-inverting (or noninverting) amplifier consists of an op amp where input voltage $v_i$ is connected to $v_+$, $v_-$ is connected ground through a ground resistance $R_g$ (current from $v_-$ to ground), and $v_o$ is fed back to $v_-$ through a feedback resistance $R_f$ (current from $v_o$ to $v_-$).

$$v_+ = v_- = v_i$$

$$i_g = \frac{v_i}{R_g} = i_f = \frac{v_o - v_i}{R_f}$$

$$v_o = \left(1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g}\right) v_i$$

The closed-loop gain $G$ is defined as

$$G = \frac{v_o}{v_i} = 1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g}$$

The feedback factor $\beta$ is defined as

$$\beta = \frac{1}{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g}} = \frac{1}{G}$$

Effect of finite open-loop gain:

$$v_+ = v_i$$

$$v_o = A(v_i - v_-)$$

$$v_- = v_i - \frac{v_o}{A}$$

$$i_g = \frac{v_-}{R_g} = \frac{v_i - \frac{v_o}{A}}{R_g} = i_f = \frac{v_o - v_-}{R_f} = \frac{v_o - v_i + \frac{v_o}{A}}{R_f}$$

$$G = \frac{v_o}{v_i} = \frac{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g}}{1 + \frac{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g}}{A}} = \frac{G_{\text{ideal}}}{1 + \frac{G_{\text{ideal}}}{A}} = \frac{G_{\text{ideal}}}{1 + \frac{1}{A\beta}}$$

$$\lim_{A \to \infty} G = 1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g} = G_{\text{ideal}}$$

For single-pole model $A(s) = \frac{A_0}{1 + \frac{s}{\omega_b}}$ with $A_0 \gg 1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g}$ and $\omega_t = A_0 \omega_b$:

$$\begin{aligned}
G &= \frac{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g}}{1 + \frac{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g}}{A}} \\
&= \frac{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g}}{1 + \frac{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g}}{A_0} + \frac{\frac{s}{\omega_t}}{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g}}} \\
&\approx \frac{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g}}{1 + \frac{\frac{s}{\omega_t}}{1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g}}} \\
&\approx \frac{G_{\text{ideal}}}{1 + \frac{\frac{s}{\omega_t}}{G_{\text{ideal}}}} \\
&\approx \frac{G_{\text{ideal}}}{1 + \frac{s}{\omega_t \beta}}
\end{aligned}$$

which is a low-pass STC filter with 3 dB bandwidth $\frac{\omega_t}{1+\frac{R_f}{R_g}} = \omega_t \beta$ and DC gain $1 + \frac{R_f}{R_g} = G_{\text{ideal}}$.

### ix Unity gain amplifier, unity gain buffer, buffer amplifier, or voltage follower

A unity gain amplifier consist of an op amp where input voltage $v_i$ is connected to $v_+$, and $v_o$ is fed back to $v_-$.

$$v_o = v_- = v_+ = v_i$$

### x Difference amplifier or differential amplifier

A difference amplifier consists of an op amp where first input voltage $v_1$ is connected to $v_-$ through an input resistance $R_1$ (current from $v_1$ to $v_-$), second input voltage $v_2$ is connected to $v_+$ through an input resistance $R_2$ (current from $v_2$ to $v_+$), $v_+$ is connected to ground through a ground resistance $R_g$ (current from $v_+$ to ground), and $v_o$ is fed back to $v_-$ through a feedback resistance $R_f$ (current from $v_-$ to $v_o$). Denote common-mode signal $v_{cm} = \frac{v_1 + v_2}{2}$ and differential signal $v_d = v_2 - v_1$.

$$v_o = -\frac{R_f}{R_1} v_1 + \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g}\left(1 + \frac{R_f}{R_1}\right) v_2$$

$$i_1 = \frac{1}{R_1}\left(v_1 - \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g} v_2\right)$$

$$i_2 = \frac{v_2}{R_2 + R_g}$$

Common-mode gain $A_{cm}$ and differential gain $A_d$, defined by

$$v_o = v_{cm} A_{cm} + v_d A_d,$$

are

$$A_{cm} = \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g}\left(1 - \frac{R_2}{R_g}\frac{R_f}{R_1}\right)$$

$$A_d = \frac{1}{2}\frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g}\left(1 + \frac{R_2 + 2R_g}{R_g}\frac{R_f}{R_1}\right)$$

Common-mode rejection ratio (CMRR) is defined as

$$\text{CMRR} = 20 \log \left|\frac{A_d}{A_{cm}}\right|$$

To make $A_{cm} = 0$, we need

$$\frac{R_f}{R_1} = \frac{R_g}{R_2},$$

at which

$$A_d = \frac{R_f}{R_1} = \frac{R_g}{R_2}$$

Differential input resistance $R_d$ is

$$R_d = R_1 + R_2$$

Thus, high differential gain hurts differential input resistance, which lower the voltage applied to the amplifier since source has internal resistance.

*Proof.* Use superposition. With $v_1$ enabled and $v_2$ disabled,

$$v_+ = v_- = 0$$

$$i_2 = i_g = 0$$

$$i_1 = \frac{v_1}{R_1} = i_f$$

$$v_o = -i_f R_f = -\frac{R_f}{R_1} v_1$$

With $v_2$ enabled and $v_1$ disabled,

$$i_2 = i_g = \frac{v_2}{R_2 + R_g}$$

$$v_+ = v_- = i_g R_g = \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g} v_2$$

$$i_1 = -\frac{v_-}{R_1} = -\frac{R_g}{R_1(R_2 + R_g)} v_2 = i_f$$

$$v_o = v_- - i_f R_f = \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g} v_2 + \frac{R_g R_f}{R_1(R_2 + R_g)} v_2 = \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g} \left(1 + \frac{R_f}{R_1}\right) v_2$$

Sum:

$$v_o = -\frac{R_f}{R_1} v_1 + \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g} \left(1 + \frac{R_f}{R_1}\right) v_2$$

$$i_1 = \frac{v_1}{R_1} - \frac{R_g}{R_1(R_2 + R_g)} v_2 = \frac{1}{R_1} \left(v_1 - \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g} v_2\right)$$

$$i_2 = \frac{v_2}{R_2 + R_g}$$

$$v_1 = v_{cm} - \frac{v_d}{2}$$

$$v_2 = v_{cm} + \frac{v_d}{2}$$

$$\begin{aligned} v_o &= -\frac{R_f}{R_1} \left(v_{cm} - \frac{v_d}{2}\right) + \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g} \left(1 + \frac{R_f}{R_1}\right) \left(v_{cm} + \frac{v_d}{2}\right) \\ &= \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g} \left(1 - \left(\frac{R_2 + R_g}{R_g} - 1\right) \frac{R_f}{R_1}\right) v_{cm} + \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g} \left(1 + \left(\frac{R_2 + R_g}{R_g} + 1\right) \frac{R_f}{R_1}\right) \frac{v_d}{2} \\ &= \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g} \left(1 - \frac{R_2}{R_g} \frac{R_f}{R_1}\right) v_{cm} + \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g} \left(1 + \frac{R_2 + 2R_g}{R_g} \frac{R_f}{R_1}\right) \frac{v_d}{2} \end{aligned}$$

$$A_{cm} = \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g}\left(1 - \frac{R_2}{R_g}\frac{R_f}{R_1}\right)$$
$$A_d = \frac{1}{2}\frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g}\left(1 + \frac{R_2 + 2R_g}{R_g}\frac{R_f}{R_1}\right)$$

To make $A_{cm} = 0$, we need

$$1 = \frac{R_2}{R_g}\frac{R_f}{R_1}$$
$$\frac{R_f}{R_1} = \frac{R_g}{R_2}$$

at which

$$\begin{aligned} A_d &= \frac{1}{2}\frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g}\left(1 + \frac{R_2 + 2R_g}{R_g}\frac{R_f}{R_1}\right) \\ &= \frac{1}{2}\frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g}\left(1 + \frac{R_2 + 2R_g}{R_2}\right) \\ &= \frac{R_g}{R_2 + R_g}\frac{R_2 + R_g}{R_2} \\ &= \frac{R_g}{R_2} \end{aligned}$$

Differential input resistance:

$$i_d = \frac{v_+}{R_g} = \frac{v_2 - v_+}{R_2} = \frac{v_+ - v_2 + v_d}{R_1}$$
$$R_2 v_+ = R_g v_2 - R_g v_+$$
$$R_1 v_2 - R_1 v_+ = R_2 v_+ - R_2 v_2 + R_2 v_d$$
$$v_2 = \left(\frac{R_2 + R_g}{R_g}\right) v_+$$
$$(R_1 + R_2)(v_2 - v_+) = R_2 v_d$$
$$v_+ = \frac{R_g}{R_1 + R_2} v_d$$
$$i_d = \frac{1}{R_1 + R_2} v_d$$
$$R_d = \frac{v_d}{i_d} = R_1 + R_2$$

□

### xi Instrumentation amplifier (INA)

An instrumentation amplifier consists of a difference amplifier (second stage) with outputs of two identical non-inverting amplifiers (first stage) as inputs, which behaves the same as the difference amplifier but with both common-mode and differential gains multiplied by the gain of the first stage. It can achieve higher differential gain than difference amplifier under same differential input resistance. However, common-mode signal is also amplified in the first stage, so CMRR of second stage must be good, i.e., the resistances must be precise.

### xii Inverting configuration with general impedance

Consider an op amp where input voltage $v_i$ is connected to $v_-$ through an input impedance $Z_i$ (current from $v_i$ to $v_-$), $v_+$ is connected to ground, and $v_o$ is fed back to $v_-$ through a feedback impedance $Z_f$ (current from $v_-$ to $v_o$).

Laplace domain:

$$V_+ = V_- = 0$$

$$I_i = \frac{V_i}{Z_i} = I_f = -\frac{V_o}{Z_f}$$

$$V_o = -\frac{Z_f}{Z_i} V_i$$

Effect of finite open-loop gain:

$$V_+ = 0$$

$$V_o = -AV_-$$

$$I_i = \frac{V_i - V_-}{Z_i} = \frac{V_i + \frac{V_o}{A}}{Z_i} = I_f = -\frac{V_o + \frac{V_o}{A}}{Z_f}$$

$$G = \frac{V_o}{V_i} = \frac{-\frac{Z_f}{Z_i}}{1 + \frac{1+\frac{Z_f}{Z_i}}{A}} = \frac{G_{\text{ideal}}}{1 + \frac{1-G_{\text{ideal}}}{A}}$$

$$\lim_{A \to \infty} G = -\frac{Z_f}{Z_i} = G_{\text{ideal}}$$

For single-pole model $A(s) = \frac{A_0}{1 + \frac{s}{\omega_b}}$ with $A_0 \gg 1 + \frac{Z_f}{Z_i}$ and $\omega_t = A_0 \omega_b$:

$$\begin{aligned} G &= \frac{-\frac{Z_f}{Z_i}}{1 + \frac{1+\frac{Z_f}{Z_i}}{A}} \\ &= \frac{-\frac{Z_f}{Z_i}}{1 + \frac{1+\frac{Z_f}{Z_i}}{A_0} + \frac{\frac{s}{\omega_t}}{1+\frac{Z_f}{Z_i}}} \\ &\approx \frac{-\frac{Z_f}{Z_i}}{1 + \frac{\frac{s}{\omega_t}}{1+\frac{Z_f}{Z_i}}}, \end{aligned}$$

### xiii Inverting integrator or Miller integrator

An inverting integrator consists of an op amp where input voltage $v_I$ is connected to $v_-$ through an input resistance $R$ (current from $v_I$ to $v_-$), $v_+$ is connected to ground, and $v_O$ is fed back to $v_-$ through a feedback capacitance $C$ (current from $v_-$ to $v_O$).

$v_O(0^-)$ is the initial voltage across $C$ ($v_O$ relative to $v_-$).

Time domain:

$$v_+ = v_- = 0$$

$$i_I = \frac{v_I}{R} = i_C = -C\frac{\mathrm{d}v_O}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

$$v_O = v_O(0^-) - \frac{1}{RC}\int_0^t v_I(\tau)\,\mathrm{d}\tau$$

Laplace domain:

$$V_+ = V_- = 0$$

$$I_I = \frac{V_I}{R} = I_C = -CsV_O + Cv_O(0^-)$$

$$V_O = \frac{1}{s}v_O(0^-) - \frac{1}{RCs}V_I$$

Transfer function: Infinite DC gain. Thus, any tiny DC component in the input signal will blow this out. $\frac{\pi}{2}$ phase shift.

$$H(s) = \frac{V_o}{V_i} = -\frac{1}{RCs}$$

Unity-gain angular frequency:

$$\frac{1}{RC}$$

### xiv Inverting integrator or Miller integrator feasible configuration

An inverting integrator feasible configuration consists of an op amp where input voltage $v_I$ is connected to $v_-$ through an input resistance $R$ (current from $v_I$ to $v_-$), $v_+$ is connected to ground, and $v_O$ is fed back to $v_-$ through a feedback capacitance $C$ and feedback resistance $R_f$ in parallel connection with the sum of their current be $i_f$ (from $v_-$ to $v_O$).

$v_O(0^-)$ is the initial voltage across $C$ ($v_O$ relative to $v_-$).

Laplace domain:

$$V_+ = V_- = 0$$

$$I_I = \frac{V_I}{R} = I_f = -\left(\frac{1}{R_f} + Cs\right)V_O + Cv_O(0^-) = -\frac{1 + R_fCs}{R_f}V_O + Cv_O(0^-)$$

$$V_O = \frac{R_fC}{1 + R_fCs}v_O(0^-) - \frac{\frac{R_f}{R}}{1 + R_fCs}V_I$$

Transfer function: STC low-pass with cutoff angular frequency $\frac{1}{R_fC}$ and DC gain $\frac{R_f}{R}$.

$$H(s) = \frac{V_o}{V_i} = -\frac{\frac{R_f}{R}}{1 + R_fCs}$$

### xv Inverting differentiator

An inverting differentiator consists of an op amp where input voltage $v_I$ is connected to $v_-$ through an input capacitor $C$ (current from $v_I$ to $v_-$), $v_+$ is connected to ground, and $v_O$ is fed back to $v_-$ through a feedback resistor $R$ (current from $v_-$ to $v_O$).

$v_I(0^-)$ is the initial voltage across $C$ ($v_I$ relative to $v_-$).

Time domain:

$$i_I = C\frac{\mathrm{d}v_I}{\mathrm{d}t} = i_f = \frac{-v_O}{R}$$

$$v_O = -RC\frac{\mathrm{d}v_I}{\mathrm{d}t}$$

Laplace domain:

$$I_I = CsV_I - Cv_I(0^-) = I_f = \frac{-V_O}{R}$$

$$V_O = -RCsV_I + RCv_I(0^-)$$

Transfer function: Infinite gain at $\omega = \infty$. $-\frac{\pi}{2}$ phase shift.

$$H(s) = \frac{V_o}{V_i} = -RCs$$

Unity-gain angular frequency:

$$\frac{1}{RC}$$

### xvi Inverting differentiator feasible configuration

An inverting differentiator feasible configuration consists of an op amp where input voltage $v_I$ is connected to $v_-$ through an input capacitor $C$ and a input resistor $R_I$ in series connection (current from $v_I$ to $v_-$), $v_+$ is connected to ground, and $v_O$ is fed back to $v_-$ through a feedback resistor $R$ (current from $v_-$ to $v_O$).

$v_I(0^-)$ is the initial voltage across $C$ ($v_I$ relative to $v_-$).

Laplace domain:

$$I_I = \frac{1}{R_I + \frac{1}{Cs}}V_I - Cv_I(0^-) = \frac{\frac{s}{R_I}}{s + \frac{1}{R_IC}}V_I - Cv_I(0^-) = I_f = \frac{-V_O}{R}$$

$$V_O = -\frac{\frac{R}{R_I}s}{s + \frac{1}{R_IC}}V_I + RCv_I(0^-)$$

Transfer function: STC high-pass with cutoff angular frequency $\frac{1}{R_IC}$ and gain $\frac{R}{R_I}$ at $\omega = \infty$.

$$H(s) = \frac{V_o}{V_i} = -\frac{\frac{R}{R_I}s}{s + \frac{1}{R_IC}}$$

### xvii Large-signal operation

- Output voltage saturation: A real op amp operates linearly over a limited range of output voltages and saturates if the output voltage reaches a saturation voltage, which is related to the positive and negative power supply voltages. An op amp with saturation voltage equal to its power supplies is said to offer rail-to-rail output.
- Output current limits: A real op amp's output current is limited to a specified maximum. This also imposes a output voltage limit equal to the maximum output current multiplied by the sum of output impedance and load impedance. For 741, its maximum output current is 20 mA.

### xviii Slew rate (SR)

There is a specific maximum magnitude of rate of change possible at the output voltage of a real op amp, called slew rate (SR), usually specified on the op-amp data sheet in units of V/μs.

To measure it, connect $v_o$ to $v_-$ and $v_+$ to a voltage source $v_t$ and measure the rate of change of $v_o$ before it reaches $v_t$. The op amp is then said to be slewing, and the output is slew-rete limited.

## IV Band Theory (能帶理論) and Semiconductor

### i Electronic band structure or band structure

The electronic band structure (or simply band structure) of a solid describes the range of energy levels that electrons may or may not have within it.

### ii (Energy) band (能帶)

Atomic orbitals from multiple atoms combine to form molecular orbitals, such as bonding and anti-bonding orbitals. When a vast number of atoms—typically on the order of $10^{20}$ or more—come together to form a solid, the energy differences between these molecular orbitals become extremely small. Consequently, a cluster of closely spaced energy levels can be treated as a continuous energy band.

### iii Fermi level (費米能階)

The Fermi level of a solid-state body is the thermodynamic work required to add one electron to the body. For Cu, $E_F = 7.0$ eV.

### iv Work function (功函數)

For a material with Fermi level $E_F$ and energy of an electron infinitely far in vacuum $E_{\text{vac}}$, the work function is

$$W = E_{\text{vac}} - E_F.$$

Work function is related with the threshold frequency $f_0$ of photoelectric effect by

$$W = hf_0.$$

### v Density or concentration

For a type of particles, the (number) density or concentration of it is defined as the number of it per unit volume in a material.

### vi Number density of states of the allowed energy level per unit volume per unit energy interval

The number density of states of the allowed energy level per unit volume per unit energy interval as a function of energy level $E$ is

$$N(E) = \frac{8\sqrt{2}\pi m_e^{3/2}}{h^3}\sqrt{E}$$

where $m_e$ is the mass of an electron.

### vii Occupancy probability

The occupancy probability, the probability that a given available state will be occupied by an electron, as a function of energy level $E$, is

$$P(E) = \frac{1}{\exp\left(\frac{E-E_F}{kT}\right)+1}$$

where $T$ is temperature in K and $k$ is Boltzmann's constant $8.62 \times 10^{-5}$ eV/K.

### viii Number density of occupied states per unit volume per unit energy interval

The number density of occupied states per unit volume per unit energy interval $N_0(E)$ is

$$N_0(E) = N(E)P(E).$$

### ix Finding Fermi energy

$E_F$ can be found by solving

$$n = \int_0^{E_F} N_0(E)\,\mathrm{d}E\,.$$

The result is

$$E_F = \left(\frac{3}{16\sqrt{2}\pi}\right)^{2/3}\frac{h^2}{m_e}n^{2/3} \approx \frac{0.121h^2}{m_e}n^{2/3}.$$

### x Ohmic contact

An ohmic contact is a non-rectifying electrical junction (接面), that is, a junction between two semiconductors or conductors that has a linear current–voltage (I–V) curve as with Ohm's law.

### xi Metals

A partially filled band always exist, in which electrons can wander around and conduct current, called free electrons (or simply electrons).

The density of free electrons $n$ in the partially filled band is the material's mass density multiplied by the material's number of valence electrons per atom multiplied by Avogadro's number divided by the material's molar mass.

The change of Fermi level on temperature change is small and often negligible for metals.

### xii Bands for semiconductors and insulators

- **Conduction band (導帶)**: The lowest-energy band that is not filled, in which electrons, if exist, can wander around and conduct current, called free electrons (or simply electrons). The energy level of conduction band minimum is denoted $E_C$.
- **Valence band (價帶)**: The highest-energy band that is filled, in which electrons are constrained in covalent bonds and can't wander away freely or conduct current. The energy level of valence band maximum is denoted $E_V$.
- **Band gap (能隙)**: The gap between conduction band minimum and valence band maximum. The energy difference of the gap is called band-gap energy $E_g = E_C - E_V$. For silicon, $E_g = 1.12$ eV.

### xiii Insulator

A material with empty conduction band and high band-gap energy such that no transition of electron from valence band to conduction band occurs.

### xiv Semiconductor

A material whose elements of crystal structure have a valence of four in average and form a network of bonds as valence band and with low band-gap energy such that transition of electron from valence band to conduction band can occur under room temperature and that conductivity lies between that of conductors and insulators.

There are two kinds of semiconductors:

- single-element semiconductors, such as silicon (IV) and germanium (IV), and
- compound semiconductors, such as gallium arsenide GaAs (III-V), aluminium gallium arsenide AlGaAs (III-V), indium phosphide InP (III-V), aluminium gallium indium phosphide AlInGaP (III-V), zinc oxide $ZnO_2$ (II-VI), and titanium dioxide $TiO_2$ (II-VI).

Germanium was used in the fabrication of very early transistors (late 1940s, early 1950s). It was quickly supplanted by silicon, on which today's integrated-circuit technology is almost entirely based.

Compound semiconductors are useful in special electronic circuit applications as well as in applications that involve light, such as light-emitting diodes (LEDs) (發光二極體).

### xv Energy and effective mass (有效質量) of electrons

The energy of an electron in a semiconductor is not the simple square relation of that of a free electron and wave number but a complicated periodic function. However, near an edge of a band, it can be approximated with:

$$E(k) \approx E_0 + \frac{\hbar^2 k^2}{2m^*}$$

where $E_0$ is the energy of the edge, $k$ is wave number, and $m$[8] is a constant called effective mass given by

$$m^* = \hbar^2 \left( \frac{\mathrm{d}^2 E(k))}{\mathrm{d}k^2} \right)^{-1}$$

where $\frac{\mathrm{d}^2 E(k)}{\mathrm{d}k^2}$ is taken at the edge. Effective mass is usually written as multiple of mass of electron.

### xvi Effective mass of electrons at difference levels

- At conduction band minimum, $\frac{\mathrm{d}^2 E(k)}{\mathrm{d}k^2} > 0$ and $m^* > 0$. These electrons behave like free electrons but with mass $m^*$.
- At valence band maximum, $\frac{\mathrm{d}^2 E(k)}{\mathrm{d}k^2} < 0$ and $m^* < 0$. These electrons move to the opposite direction of a force acting on it.

### xvii (Electron) hole (（電子）電洞/空穴)

A hole $h^+$ is an absence of an electron in valence band.

Let the effective mass of electrons at valence band maximum be $-m^*$ and the concentration of holes be $p$. Consider a nearly-filled valence band, the current of it equals to the current of a filled valence band, which is always zero, subtracting the current that would exist due to the electrons that would fill the holes if there are not

the holes, which is in the opposite direction of the force. Thus, the current is in the direction of the force and equals to that due to particles with charge $q$ and mass $m^*$ at concentration $p$, where $q$ is the elementary charge $\approx 1.602 \times 10^{-19}$ C.

Thus, we define hole as a quasiparticle with charge $q$ and effective mass $m^*$, which is positive.

### xviii Carriers (載子) of semiconductors

Thus, there are two types of carriers in semiconductors mathematically:

- free electron at conduction band minimum with charge $-q$ and a positive effective mass $m_n^*$, and whose properties are denoted with subscript $n$, and
- holes at valence band maximum with charge $q$ and a positive effective mass $m_p^*$, and whose properties are denoted with subscript $p$.

The concentration of free electrons is denoted $n$; the concentration of holes is denoted $p$.

### xix Effective densities of states

Available electronic states effectively participate in carrier occupation near a band edge at a given temperature, denoted as $N_C$ for conduction band minimum and $N_V$ for valence band maximum. They are governed by

$$N_C = 2\left(\frac{2\pi m_n^* kT}{h^2}\right)^{3/2}$$

$$N_V = 2\left(\frac{2\pi m_p^* kT}{h^2}\right)^{3/2}$$

### xx Carrier generation

When an electron transits from valence band to conduction band, a free electron in conduction band and a hole in valence band are generated, and an energy of band-gap energy $E_g$ is consumed.

Since they are generated in pairs, an intrinsic (undoped) semiconductor has equal concentration of free electrons and holes.

### xxi Carrier recombination (載子複合) and electroluminescence (電致發光/電激發光)

When an electron transits from conduction band to valence band, a free electron in conduction band and a hole in valence band are cancelled, and an energy of band-

gap energy $E_g$ is released in the form of a photon with frequency $f_g = \frac{E_g}{h}$, called electroluminescence.

Carrier recombination occurs naturally and at a rate proportional to the number of free electrons and holes.

Semiconductors with different band-gap energy can release light of different frequency. This effect is used in light emitting diode (LED) (發光二極體).

### xxii Exciton (激子)

A quasiparticle with no charge of a pair of free electron and hole in bounded state due to electrostatic force.

### xxiii Photovoltaic effect (光生伏打效應/光伏效應)/Internal photoelectric effect (內光電效應)

Carrier generation caused by light.

Similar to the photoelectric effect, if the frequency of the incident light is greater than or equal to the material's threshold frequency $f_g = \frac{E_g}{h}$, electron-hole pairs are generated immediately; if the frequency of the incident light is less than this threshold, such pairs are never produced.

This effect is used in solar cell, photoresistor, and light-controlled relay.

### xxiv Thermal generation

Carrier generation due to thermal energy. The higher the temperature, the more thermal generations occur.

### xxv Thermal equilibrium

Thermal equilibrium is the state where thermal generation rate equals to carrier recombination rate, at which

$$np = n_i^2$$

where $n_i$ denotes the number of free electrons and holes in a unit volume at a given temperature given by

$$n_i = BT^{3/2} e^{-\frac{E_g}{2kT}}$$

where $B$ is a material-dependent parameter. For silicon, $B$ is approximately $7.3 \times 10^{15}$ $\text{cm}^{-3}\text{K}^{-3/2}$, and $n_i$ is approximately $1.5 \times 10^{10}$ $\text{cm}^{-3}$ at room temperature.

$$n = N_C \exp\left(-\frac{E_C - E_F}{kT}\right)$$

$$p = N_V \exp\left(-\frac{E_F - E_V}{kT}\right)$$

For intrinsic semiconductor at thermal equilibrium,

$$n = p = n_i$$

$$E_F = \frac{E_C + E_V}{2} + \frac{kT}{2}\ln\left(\frac{N_V}{N_C}\right) = \frac{E_C + E_V}{2} + \frac{3kT}{4}\ln\left(\frac{m_p^*}{m_n^*}\right)$$

At 0 K, no thermal generation occurs, so an intrinsic semiconductor has no carrier at thermal equilibrium.

At room temperature, the carrier concentration of silicon at thermal equilibrium is still far too small for intrinsic silicon to conduct appreciable current, so an intrinsic silicon is an insulator.

### xxvi Doping (摻雜)

Doping is the intentional introduction of impurities into an intrinsic/undoped/pure semiconductor in order to change its properties. The doped material is referred to as an extrinsic/doped semiconductor. $E_C$ and $E_V$ are approximately unchanged for light doping.

### xxvii n-typed (n 型) semiconductors or n materials

Semiconductor with doping of elements that readily lose electrons, called donors, typically elements with valence of 5, such as phosphorus P and arsenic As, which introduces an increase of the concentration of free electrons, Fermi level, and conductivity. The introduced free electrons are neutralized by an equal amount of bound/bounded positive charge associated with the donor atoms even though they are often not shown in diagrams for simplicity.

If the concentration of donor atoms is $N_D$, which is usually far greater than $n_i$, the concentration of free electrons in the n-type semiconductor will be approximately

$$n_n = N_D$$

and, at thermal equilibrium,

$$p_n = \frac{n_i^2}{N_D}$$

Hence, free electrons are said to be the majority (charge) carriers, while holes are said to be the minority (charge) carriers. The minority holes are often not shown in diagrams for simplicity.

### xxviii p-typed (p 型) semiconductors or p materials

Semiconductor with doping of elements that readily get electrons, called acceptors, typically elements with valence of 3, such as boron B and aluminium Al, which introduces an increase of the concentration of holes and conductivity and decrease of Fermi level. The introduced holes are neutralized by an equal amount of bound/bounded negative charge associated with the acceptor atoms even though they are often not shown in diagrams for simplicity.

If the concentration of acceptor atoms is $N_A$, which is usually far greater than $n_i$, the concentration of holes in the p-type semiconductor will be approximately

$$p_p = N_A$$

and, at thermal equilibrium,

$$n_p = \frac{n_i^2}{N_A}$$

Hence, holes are said to be the majority (charge) carriers, while free electrons are said to be the minority (charge) carriers. The minority free electrons are often not shown in diagrams for simplicity.

## V Current flow in semiconductors

### i Drude model of drift velocity and drift current

In Drude model, after a typical collision, each free electron or hole completely lose its memory of its previous velocity and moving off in a random direction. In the average time $\tau_n, \tau_p$ between collisions, the average free electron and hole will acquire a drift speed of

$$\mathbf{v}_n = -\mu_n \mathbf{E} = -\frac{q\tau_n}{m_n^*}\mathbf{E}$$

$$\mathbf{v}_p = \mu_p \mathbf{E} = \frac{q\tau_p}{m_p^*}\mathbf{E}$$

where $\mu_n$ is free electron mobility defined as

$$\mu_n = \frac{q\tau_n}{m_n^*}$$

and $\mu_p$ is hole mobility defined as

$$\mu_p = \frac{q\tau_p}{m_p^*}$$

For silicon, $\mu_n$ is 1350 $cm^2V^{-1}s^{-1}$ and $\mu_p$ is 480 $cm^2V^{-1}s^{-1}$.

The charge densities are $-nq$ and $pq$ for free electrons and holes respectively, and the drift current densities are

$$\mathbf{J}_{S,n} = -nq\mathbf{v}_n = nq\mu_n\mathbf{E} = \frac{nq^2\tau_n}{m_n^*}\mathbf{E}$$

$$\mathbf{J}_{S,p} = pq\mathbf{v}_n = pq\mu_p\mathbf{E} = \frac{pq^2\tau_p}{m_p^*}\mathbf{E}$$

The total drift current density is

$$\mathbf{J}_S = \mathbf{J}_{S,n} + \mathbf{J}_{S,n} = q\left(n\mu_n + p\mu_p\right)\mathbf{E} = q^2\left(\frac{n\tau_n}{m_n^*} + \frac{p\tau_p}{m_p^*}\right)\mathbf{E}$$

Thus the resistivity $\rho$ is

$$\rho = \frac{|\mathbf{E}|}{|\mathbf{J}_S|} = \frac{1}{q\left(n\mu_n + p\mu_p\right)} = \frac{1}{q^2\left(\frac{n\tau_n}{m_n^*} + \frac{p\tau_p}{m_p^*}\right)}$$

which is a constant, i.e., obeying Ohm's law.

### ii Diffusion current

When the concentration of a type of charge carriers differ across a piece of semiconductor, the charge carriers will diffuse from he region of high concentration to the region of low concentration, which gives rise to a net flow of charge, called diffusion current.

The concentration of charge carriers of a piece of semiconductor under a state is called concentration profile.

The diffusion current densities of free electrons and holes are

$$\mathbf{J}_{D,n} = -qD_n\nabla n$$

$$\mathbf{J}_{D,p} = qD_p\nabla p$$

where $\nabla_n, \nabla_p$ are concentration gradients, $D_n, D_p$ are constants called diffusion constants or diffusivities of free electrons and holes respectively given by:

$$D_n = \mu_n V_T$$

$$D_p = \mu_p V_T$$

called Einstein relationship, where $V_T$ is thermal voltage given by

$$V_T = \frac{kT}{q}$$

For $T = 300$ K, $V_T$ is about 25.9 mV; for $T = 293$ K (i.e., 20 degrees Celsius), $V_T$ is about 25.3 mV. For intrinsic silicon, $D_n$ is 35 cm$^2$/s and $D_p$ is 12 cm$^2$/s.

## VI pn or p-n junction at equilibrium

### i Physical structure

A p-n junction is a single semiconducting crystal with one end doped to form p material and the other end doped to form n material. The two types meet at a junction plane. External wire connections are made to both ends through metal contacts. If the pn junction is used as diode (二極體), these constitute the two terminals,

- anode, indicated by +, for p-type end, and
- cathode, indicated by -, for n-type end, of the diode.

A one-dimensional coordinate is established with junction as 0 and towards n region as positive direction.

### ii Abrupt junction

A pn junction where the doping concentration is made to change abruptly at the junction boundary is called abrupt junction.

A pn junction where the doping concentration is made to change gradually from one side of the junction to the other is called graded junction.

We will be studying abrupt pn junction unless otherwise specified.

### iii (Carrier-)depletion/space-charge region/layer/zone and diffusion current

- Majority holes diffuse from the p region to the n region. The holes that diffuse across the junction into the n region quickly recombine with some of the majority free electrons, which results in the disappearance of some free electrons in the n region. Thus, some bound positive charge will no longer be neutralized by free electrons, and this charges are said to have been uncovered. Since recombination occurs close to the junction, there will be a region in the n region near the junction that is depleted of free electrons and contains uncovered bound positive charge.
- Majority free electrons diffuse from the n region to the p region. The free electrons that diffuse across the junction into the p region quickly recombine with some of the majority holes, which results in the disappearance of some holes in the p region. Thus, some bound negative charge will no longer be neutralized by holes, and this charges are said to have been uncovered. Since recombination occurs close to the junction, there will be a region in the p region near the junction that is depleted of holes and contains uncovered bound negative charge.

The region on both sides of the junction, with the n side of this region positively charged and depleted of free electrons and the p side negatively charged and depleted of holes, is called depletion region.

Due to the depletion, the carrier concentrations of holes and free electrons in the whole depletion region are both negligible.

Thus, the net charge density in the region is the bound charge density.

- In n-type part of the depletion region, the net charge density is $N_D$.
- In p-type part of the depletion region, the net charge density is $-N_A$.

The width of the region on the two sides are not always the same. Rather, to uncover the same amount of charge, the depletion layer will extend deeper into the more lightly doped material, that is, wider into the n material if $N_A > N_D$ and wider into the p material if $N_A < N_D$, where $N_A$ and $N_D$ are the doping concentrations of the p side and n side of the junction respectively.

The charges on both sides cause an electric field $\mathbf{E}$ to be established in the direction from n side to p side, which results in a potential difference across the region, with the n side at a positive voltage relative to the p side, called barrier voltage $V_0$.

Both diffusions of majority carriers form currents from the n side to the p side. However, the barrier voltage acts as an energy barrier that only majority carriers with energy no less than $qV_0$ can diffuse pass the depletion region, and the others will be pushed back by the electric field.

- For the majority holes from the p region, the pushed back holes form a drift current density $pq\mathbf{E}$, which is from the p side to the n side, and thus the net current density due to majority holes from the p region to the n region through the depletion region is

$$\mathbf{J}_{D,p} = q\left(D_p \nabla p + p\mathbf{E}\right)$$

- For the majority free electrons from the n region, the pushed back free electrons form a drift current density $nq\mathbf{E}$, which is from the p side to the n side, and thus the net current density due to majority free electrons from the n region to the p region through the depletion region is

$$\mathbf{J}_{D,n} = q\left(-D_n \nabla n + n\mathbf{E}\right)$$

Their sum is the net current density due to majority carriers from the p region to the n region through the depletion region

$$\mathbf{J}_D = \mathbf{J}_{D,p} + \mathbf{J}_{D,n} = q(D_p \nabla p - D_n \nabla n + (n+p)\mathbf{E}),$$

The net current due to majority carriers from the p region to the n region through the depletion region is called diffusion current $I_D$, which decreases as barrier voltage increases.

The regions of the p and n regions outside the depletion region are called bulk regions.

### iv Drift current

- Some of the thermally generated minority holes in the n region move toward the junction and reach the edge of the depletion region. There, they are swept across depletion region into the p side by the electric field.

- Some of the thermally generated minority free electrons in the p region move toward the junction and reach the edge of the depletion region. There, they are swept across depletion region into the n side by the electric field.

Both currents are from the n side to the p side, and their sum is called the drift current $I_S$. Since the current is carried by thermally generated minority carriers, its value is dependent on temperature; however, it is independent of barrier voltage because the drift current is determined by the number of minority carriers that make it to the edge of the depletion region; any minority carriers that manage to get to the edge of the depletion region will be swept across.

#### v Current equilibrium with open-circuit terminals

Under open-circuit condition, no external current exists; thus

$$I_D = I_S$$

This equilibrium is stable and maintained by $V_0$. If for some reason, $I_D > I_S$, more bound charges will be uncovered on both sides of the junction, which increases $V_0$ and thus decreases $I_D$, which in turns shrinks the depletion region since some of the uncovered bound charges are then covered.

#### vi Voltage equilibrium with short-circuit terminals

At equilibrium, the barrier voltage is balanced out by the voltages across the two metal-semiconductor junctions. Thus, no voltage can be measured across the terminals, complying with the conservation of energy.

#### vii (Junction) built-in voltage

The barrier voltage $V_0$ with no external voltage applied is given by

$$V_0 = V_T \ln\left(\frac{N_A N_D}{n_i^2}\right),$$

called the junction built-in voltage, which is typically in the range of 0.6 V to 0.9 V for silicon at room temperature.

#### viii Carrier concentration under no external voltage

Under no external voltage, which is signified by a subscript $0$,

- at the p material edge of the depletion and further into the p material, the majority holes have concentration $p_{p0} = N_A$, and the minority free electrons have concentration $n_{p0} = \frac{n_i^2}{N_A}$;

- at the n material edge of the depletion and further into the n material, the majority free electrons have concentration $n_{n0} = N_D$, and the minority holes have concentration $p_{n0} = \frac{n_i^2}{N_D}$.

### ix Width of and charge stored in depletion region

Let the materials be cuboid, cross sectional area of the junction be $A$, width of depletion region in $p$ side and $n$ side be $x_p$ and $x_n$ respectively, the total charge stored in depletion region in $p$ side and $n$ side be $Q_- < 0$ and $Q_+ > 0$ respectively. Then,

$$\left|Q_+\right| = qAx_nN_D = \left|Q_-\right| = qAx_pN_A$$

$$\frac{x_n}{x_p} = \frac{N_A}{N_D}$$

The width of the depletion region $W = x_p + x_n$ is given by the Poisson's equation

$$W = \sqrt{\frac{2\varepsilon}{q}\left(\frac{1}{N_A} + \frac{1}{N_D}\right)V_0}$$

where $\varepsilon$ is the permittivity of the material, which for silicon is $11.7\varepsilon_0 = 11.7 \times 8.85 \times 10^{-14}$ F/cm $= 1.04 \times 10^{-12}$ F/cm. Typical $W$ ranges from 0.1 μm to 1 μm.

$$x_n = W\frac{N_A}{N_A + N_D}$$

$$x_p = W\frac{N_D}{N_A + N_D}$$

The charge stored on either side of the depletion region is

$$\begin{aligned} Q_j &= \left|Q_+\right| = \left|Q_-\right| \\ &= WAq\frac{N_AN_D}{N_A + N_D} \\ &= A\sqrt{2\varepsilon q\left(\frac{1}{N_A} + \frac{1}{N_D}\right)V_0} \end{aligned}$$

We denote

$$\alpha = A\sqrt{2\varepsilon q\left(\frac{1}{N_A} + \frac{1}{N_D}\right)}$$

$$Q_j = AqW = \alpha\sqrt{V_0}$$

$$W = \frac{\alpha}{Aq}\sqrt{V_0}$$

### x One-sided junction

For most practical devices, one side of the pn junction is much more heavily doped than the other, called one-sided junction, that is, either

$$N_A \gg N_D, \quad W \approx x_n \gg x_p$$

or

$$N_D \gg N_A, \quad W \approx x_p \gg x_n$$

## VII pn junction with applied voltage

### i Reverse bias and forward bias

An external voltage is applied to the pn junction, with the voltage of the p-type, i.e., anode, i.e., + terminal, relative to the n-type, i.e., cathode, i.e., - terminal, being $v$.

The effective barrier voltage is

$$V_0 - v$$

- If $v < 0$, it is called reverse bias, and the reverse bias voltage is $v_R = -v$.
- If $v > 0$, it is called forward bias, and the forward bias voltage is $v_F = v$.

### ii Width of and charge stored in depletion region

For $v < V_0$, the width of the depletion region $W = x_p + x_n$ is given by the Poisson's equation

$$W = \sqrt{\frac{2\varepsilon}{q}\left(\frac{1}{N_A} + \frac{1}{N_D}\right)(V_0 - v)} = \frac{\alpha}{Aq}\sqrt{V_0}$$

and the charge stored on either side of the depletion region is

$$Q_j = AqW = A\sqrt{2\varepsilon q\left(\frac{1}{N_A} + \frac{1}{N_D}\right)(V_0 - v)} = \alpha\sqrt{V_0 - v}$$

### iii Current-voltage relationship

- The concentration of minority holes in the n region at the edge of the depletion region will increase considerably to

  $$p_n(x_n) = p_{n0}e^{v/V_T}$$

  Excess concentration is defined as

  $$p_n(x_n) - p_{n0} = p_{n0}\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right)$$

  As the injected holes diffuse into the n material, some will recombine with the majority free electrons and disappear. The excess hole concentration decays

exponentially with distance. The total hole concentration in the n material is given by

$$p_n(x) = p_{n0} + \left(p_n(x_n) - p_{n0}\right) e^{-(x-x_n)/L_p} = p_{n0} + p_{n0}\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right) e^{-(x-x_n)/L_p}, \quad x \geq x_n,$$

where $L_p$ is a constant called diffusion length of holes in the n material.

By differentiating $p_n(x)$, we obtain the diffusion current density:

$$J_p(x) = q\frac{D_p}{L_p}\left(p_n(x_n) - p_{n0}\right) e^{-(x-x_n)/L_p} = q\frac{D_p}{L_p} p_{n0}\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right) e^{-(x-x_n)/L_p}, \quad x \geq x_n$$

It does not change inside the depletion region, thus

$$J_p(x) = q\frac{D_p}{L_p}\left(p_n(x_n) - p_{n0}\right) = q\frac{D_p}{L_p} p_{n0}\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right), \quad -x_p \leq x \leq x_n$$

The current inside the depletion region is

$$i_p = AJ_p(0) = Aq\frac{D_p}{L_p}\left(p_n(x_n) - p_{n0}\right) = Aq\frac{D_p}{L_p} p_{n0}\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right)$$

- The concentration of minority free electrons in the p region at the edge of the depletion region will increase considerably to

$$n_p(-x_p) = n_{p0} e^{v/V_T}$$

Excess concentration is defined as

$$n_p(-x_p) - n_{p0} = n_{p0}\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right)$$

As the injected free electrons diffuse into the p material, some will recombine with the majority holes and disappear. The excess free electron concentration decays exponentially with distance. The total hole concentration in the p material is given by

$$n_p(-x) = n_{p0} + \left(n_p(-x_p) - n_{p0}\right) e^{-(x-x_p)/L_n} = n_{p0} + n_{p0}\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right) e^{-(x-x_p)/L_n}, \quad x \geq x_p,$$

where $L_n$ is a constant called diffusion length of free electrons in the p material.

By differentiating $n_p(x)$, we obtain the diffusion current density:

$$J_n(-x) = q\frac{D_n}{L_n}\left(n_p(-x_p) - n_{p0}\right) e^{-(x-x_p)/L_n} = q\frac{D_n}{L_n} n_{p0}\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right) e^{-(x-x_p)/L_n}, \quad x \geq x_p$$

It does not change inside the depletion region, thus

$$J_n(-x) = q\frac{D_n}{L_n}\left(n_p(-x_p) - n_{p0}\right) = q\frac{D_n}{L_n} n_{p0}\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right), \quad x_p \geq x \geq -x_n$$

The current inside the depletion region is

$$i_n = AJ_n(0) = Aq\frac{D_n}{L_n}\left(n_p(-x_p) - n_{p0}\right) = Aq\frac{D_n}{L_n} n_{p0}\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right)$$

The total current inside the depletion region is

$$i = i_p + i_n = Aq\left(\frac{D_p}{L_p}p_{n0} + \frac{D_n}{L_n}n_{p0}\right)\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right)$$

Substituting $p_{n0} = \frac{n_i^2}{N_D}$ and $n_{p0} = \frac{n_i^2}{N_A}$ gives

$$i = Aqn_i^2\left(\frac{D_p}{L_pN_D} + \frac{D_n}{L_nN_A}\right)\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right)$$

Taking $T = 0$, we obtain a constant current, which must be $-I_S$, thus

$$I_S = Aqn_i^2\left(\frac{D_p}{L_pN_D} + \frac{D_n}{L_nN_A}\right)$$

$$i = I_S\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right)$$

called Shockley ideal diode equation.

And $I_S$ is called saturation current or scale current.

# VIII Diode

## i Circuit symbol

A diode is a two-terminal device, represented with a triangle whose midpoint of one side is the + terminal (also called anode) and whose vertex opposing that side is the midpoint of a line parallel to that side and the - terminal (also called cathode).

## ii Ideal diode

For an ideal diode:

- Reverse-biased: As an negative voltage applied, it acts as an open circuit, called cut off.
- Forward-biased: As an positive voltage applied, it acts as a short circuit, called turned on.

## iii Limiting and protection circuit

We connect the + terminal of the input $v_I$ to the + terminal of an ideal diode through a resistance $R$, the + terminal of the diode to the + terminal of the output $v_O$, the - terminal of the diode to the + terminal of a voltage source $V_+ > 0$, and the - terminal of $V_+$ to both the - terminals of input and output.

- If $v_I \leq v_+$, no current flows through the diode, and $v_O = v_I$.
- If $v_I > v_+$, the current flows through diode is $i_D = \frac{v_I - V_+}{R}$, and $v_O = v_+$.

### iv Junction diode

The most common implementation of diode is pn junction, called junction diode, whose + and - terminals are the p-type and n-type ends of a pn junction. Diode refers to it unless otherwise specified. The typical values given below are for Si-based junction diode.

## IX Forward-bias region

### i Forward-bias region

For appreciable diode current $i$, $e^{v/V_T} \gg 1$ and

$$i = I_S e^{v/V_T}$$

$$v = V_T \ln\left(\frac{i}{I_S}\right) \approx 2.30 V_T \log_{10}\left(\frac{i}{I_S}\right) \approx 60 \log_{10}\left(\frac{i}{I_S}\right) \text{ mV}$$

$$v_2 - v_1 = V_T \ln\left(\frac{i_2}{i_1}\right) \approx 2.30 V_T \log_{10}\left(\frac{i_2}{i_1}\right) \approx 60 \log_{10}\left(\frac{i_2}{i_1}\right) \text{ mV}$$

Thus, the conductivity is large and increases rapidly as $V$ increases. This exponential current-voltage relationship holds over a span of about 7 decades of current. It is important to have an external circuit to limit the forward current.

The current is negligibly small for v less than about 0.5 V, called forward threshold voltage, turn-on voltage or cut-in voltage. And at a sufficiently large forward current, at which the diode is called fully conducting, the diode has a voltage drop approximately 0.6 V to 0.8 V.

At a given constant diode current, the voltage drop across the diode decreases by about 1 K increase in temperature. Thus a junction diode is a good electronic thermometer.

Consider a diode with voltage $v_D$ and current $i_D$ whose + terminal is connected to the + terminal of the input $v_{DD}$ through a resistor $R$ and - terminal is connected to the - terminal of the input $v_{DD}$.

### ii Exponential model

For $V_{DD} > 0.5$ V, the exponential model is the two equations, diode curve:

$$i_D = I_S e^{v_D/V_T}$$

and load line:

$$i_D = \frac{v_{DD} - v_D}{R}$$

- Load line analysis: Draw the two equations on $i - v$ graph. Their intersection is the solution for the circuit, called operating point $Q$.

- Iterative analysis: Given an initial point $(i_0, v_0)$ on diode curve, apply the iteration:

$$i_k = \frac{V_{DD} - v_{k-1}}{R}, \quad k \in \mathbb{N}$$

$$v_k = v_{k-1} + \ln\left(\frac{i_k}{i_{k-1}}\right)$$

until a certain $(i_m, v_m)$ such that $(i_m, v_m) - (i_{m-1}, v_{m-1})$ is within the acceptable error range, and take $(i_m, v_m)$ as the estimation for $(i_D, v_D)$.

#### iii Constant-voltage-drop model

For $V_{DD} > 0.7$ V, the constant-voltage-drop model assumes $v_D$ to be a constant $0.7$ V, and

$$i_D = \frac{v_{DD} - v_D}{R}$$

#### iv Ideal-diode model

For voltages much larger than the diode voltage drop, the ideal diode model assumes $v_D$ to be $0$ V, and

$$i_D = \frac{v_{DD}}{R}$$

#### v Small signal model

Express the total diode voltage signal $v_D$ as the sum of the dc voltage $V_D$ and the time-varying signal $v_d$:

$$v_D = V_D + v_d$$

Consider the situation that $v_D$ is kept sufficiently small $v_D \ll V_T$, which we take about $v_D < 5$ mV, and $V_{DD}$ undergoes a small change.

The total diode current signal $i_D$ is:

$$i_D = I_S e^{v_D/V_T} = I_S e^{V_D/V_T} e^{v_d/V_T}$$

Let

$$I_D = I_S e^{V_D/V_T}$$

and

$$i_d = i_D - I_D$$

$$i_D = I_D e^{v_d/V_T}$$

Use Taylor expansion

$$i_D = I_D\left(1 + \frac{v_d}{V_T}\right)$$

$$i_d = I_D \frac{v_d}{v_T}$$

$$v_d = \frac{V_T}{I_D} i_d$$

We call

$$r_d = \frac{v_d}{i_d} = \frac{V_T}{I_D}$$

diode small-signal resistance, which is inversely proportional to the bias current $I_D$ at the dc bias point $Q$.

### vi Solving procedure

Either use the exponential model, or

- use the constant-voltage-drop model to obtain the bias point,
- eliminate all independent dc sources to establish a small-signal equivalent circuit whose ground is the bias voltage,
- replace diodes with small-signal resistances to form a linear circuit,
- solve the linear circuit to find the time-varying signal components, and
- combine the dc component and the time-varying signal components to complete solution.

## X Reverse-bias region without breakdown

### i Saturation current or scale current

- $I_S$ is proportional to cross-sectional area $A$.
- $I_S$ is proportional to $n_i^2$, which strongly depends on $T$.
- $I_S$ is the current in the reverse direction that the reverse bias situation saturates at.
- Typical values for $I_S$ range from $10^{-18}$ A to $10^{-12}$ A and double in value every 5 K rise in temperature. Different semiconductor materials may exhibit values of $I_S$ differing by several orders of magnitude.

### ii Reverse current

$i \approx -I_S$. However, a real diode exhibits reverse currents much larger than $I_S$, largely due to leakage effect, and the reverse current doubles in value every 10 K rise in temperature.

# XI Reverse/junction breakdown

## i Reverse/junction breakdown

As $-v$ reaches a breakdown voltage $V_{BR} \gg V_T$, the reverse current $-i$ will increase from $I_S$ dramatically to a vary large value, and the reverse voltage across the junction remains very close to $V_{BR}$. This phenomenon is called junction breakdown.

It is not a destructive phenomenon. That is, the pn junction can be repeatedly operated in the breakdown region without a permanent effect on its characteristics predicated on the assumption that the magnitude of the reverse-breakdown current is limited by the external circuit to a safe value that limits the power dissipated in the junction to a safe, allowable level.

The very steep $i - v$ curve can be used for amplification and regulation.

## ii Mechanisms

There are two possible mechanisms for pn junction breakdown, zener effect and avalanche effect.

- Avalanche effect is the usual mechanism when $V_{BR} > 8$ V.
- Zener effect is the usual mechanism when $V_{BR} < 5$ V.
- When $V_{BR}$ is between 5 V and 8 V, the breakdown mechanism can be either the zener or the avalanche effect or a combination of the two.

## iii Avalanche effect

The minority carriers that cross the depletion region under the influence of the electric field gain sufficient kinetic energy to be able to break covalent bonds in atoms with which they collide. The carriers liberated by this process may have sufficiently high energy to be able to cause other carriers to be liberated in another ionizing collision.

It can withstand a high reverse voltage without appreciable current. The combination of large reverse current and voltage results in high power dissipation, whose overheating can result in permanent damage to the diode.

The maximum reverse voltage specified by the diode manufacturer is the maximum reverse voltage to avoid avalanche breakdown. In most applications we avoid avalanche breakdown. In some applications, we use avalanche breakdown to amplify small stimuli into large current, such as avalanche photodiodes (APD).

## iv Zener effect

The electric field in the depletion layer increases to the point of breaking covalent bonds and generating electron–hole pairs. The electrons generated in this way will be swept

by the electric field into the n side and the holes into the p side. A diode designed to be used under zener effect maintains a nearly constant reverse voltage drop, called zener voltage $V_Z$, over a wide range of reverse currents, and is called a $V_Z$ zener (diode).

At the knee current $I_{ZK}$, the zener operation is onset. At the reverse test current $I_{ZT}$ corresponding to the operating point $Q$, let the slope of reverse voltage-reverse current line, called the incremental resistance of the zener, be $r_z$, and the $v$ interception of it be $V_{Z0}$. Then the reverse voltage $V_Z$ under test current $I_Z$ near $Q$ is given by the zener model

$$V_Z = V_{Z0} + r_z I_Z,$$

that is, Thévenin network with open-circuit voltage $V_{Z0}$ and Thévenin resistance $r_z$.

The temperature coefficient (TC) of the zener voltage $V_Z$ is the derivative of $V_Z$ with respect to $T$, which is typically negative at lower reverse voltage, 0 at about 5 V to 6 V reverse voltage, and positive at higher reverse voltage.

A zener diode has a maximum power that it can safely dissipate.

# XII Capacitive effects in pn junction

## i Depletion or junction capacitance

Depletion capacitance predominates in reverse and zero bias and is from the charge stored on the depletion region given by

$$Q_j = A\sqrt{2\varepsilon q\left(\frac{1}{N_A}+\frac{1}{N_D}\right)(V_0 + v_R)} = \alpha\sqrt{V_0 + v_R}$$

In an ideal capacitor, the stored charge is linearly proportional to the applied voltage. In pn junction, however, the relationship is nonlinear. For small changes around a bias point, say $v_R = V_Q$, we can define a depletion capacitance $C_j$ as

$$C_j = \left.\frac{\mathrm{d}Q_j}{\mathrm{d}v_R}\right|_{v_R = V_Q}$$

Then,

$$C_j = \frac{\alpha}{2\sqrt{V_0 + v_R}}$$

The value of $C_j$ at zero bias is

$$C_{j0} = \frac{\alpha}{2\sqrt{V_0}} = A\sqrt{\frac{\varepsilon q}{2}\left(\frac{1}{N_A}+\frac{1}{N_D}\right)\frac{1}{V_0}}$$

And

$$C_j = \frac{C_{j0}}{\sqrt{1+\frac{v_R}{V_0}}}$$

A more general form that also encompasses graded junction is

$$C_j = \frac{C_{j0}}{\left(1 + \frac{v_R}{V_0}\right)^m}$$

where $m$ is a constant called grading coefficient, whose value ranges from 1/3 to 1/2 depending on the manner in which the concentration changes from the p to the n side.

### ii Diffusion capacitance

Diffusion capacitance predominates only in forward bias. Consider a forward-biased pn junction. In steady state,

- Some holes injected from the p-side into the n-side become excess minority carriers in the n bulk region, which has charge:

$$\begin{aligned} Q_p &= Aq \int_{x_n}^{\infty} p_n(x) - p_{n0}\, \mathrm{d}x \\ &= Aq \int_{x_n}^{\infty} \left(p_n(x_n) - p_{n0}\right) e^{-(x-x_n)/L_p}\, \mathrm{d}x \\ &= Aq \left(p_n(x_n) - p_{n0}\right) L_p \left( e^{-(x-x_n)/L_p} \right) \Big|_{x_n}^{\infty} \\ &= \frac{L_p^2}{D_p} i_p \end{aligned}$$

  We define the time constant $\tau_p$, called minority-carrier hole lifetime, as

$$\tau_p = \frac{L_p^2}{D_p}$$

$$Q_p = \tau_p i_p$$

- Some free electrons injected from the n-side into the p-side become excess minority carriers in the p bulk region, which has charge:

$$\begin{aligned} Q_n &= Aq \int_{-\infty}^{-x_p} n_p(x) - n_{p0}\, \mathrm{d}x \\ Q_n &= Aq \int_{x_p}^{\infty} n_p(-x) - n_{p0}\, \mathrm{d} - x \\ &= Aq \int_{x_p}^{\infty} \left(n_p(-x_p) - n_{p0}\right) e^{-(x-x_p)/L_n}\, \mathrm{d} - x \\ &= Aq \left(n_p(-x_p) - n_{p0}\right) L_n \left( e^{-(x-x_p)/L_n} \right) \Big|_{x_p}^{\infty} \\ &= \frac{L_n^2}{D_n} i_n \end{aligned}$$

We define the time constant $\tau_n$, called minority-carrier electron lifetime, as

$$\tau_n = \frac{L_n^2}{D_n}$$

$$Q_n = \tau_n i_n$$

The total excess minority-carrier charge is

$$Q = Q_p + Q_n = \tau_p i_p + \tau_n i_n$$

Consider

$$i_p = Aq\frac{D_p}{L_p}p_{n0}\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right)$$

$$i_n = Aq\frac{D_n}{L_n}n_{p0}\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right)$$

Thus,

$$i_p = \frac{\frac{D_p}{L_p}p_{n0}}{\frac{D_p}{L_p}p_{n0} + \frac{D_n}{L_n}n_{p0}}i$$

$$i_n = \frac{\frac{D_n}{L_n}n_{p0}}{\frac{D_p}{L_p}p_{n0} + \frac{D_n}{L_n}n_{p0}}i$$

$$Q = \tau_p i_p + \tau_n i_n = \frac{L_p p_{n0} + L_n n_{p0}}{\frac{D_p}{L_p}p_{n0} + \frac{D_n}{L_n}n_{p0}}i$$

We define the (mean) transit time of the junction $\tau_T$ such that

$$Q = \tau_T i,$$

which has the value

$$\tau_T = \frac{L_p p_{n0} + L_n n_{p0}}{\frac{D_p}{L_p}p_{n0} + \frac{D_n}{L_n}n_{p0}}$$

For small changes around a bias point, say $v = V_Q$, we can define an incremental diffusion capacitance $C_d$ as

$$C_d = \left.\frac{\mathrm{d}Q}{\mathrm{d}v}\right|_{v=V_Q}$$

Using the approximation $e^{v/V_T} \gg 1$, $i = I_S\left(e^{v/V_T} - 1\right) \approx I_S e^{v/V_T}$, we have

$$C_d = \frac{\tau_T}{V_T}i$$

$C_d$ is directly proportional to the forward current $i$ and thus is negligibly small when the diode is reverse biased. Also, to keep $C_d$ small, the transit time $\tau_T$ must be made small, which is important for a pn junction intended for high-speed or high-frequency operation.

For most practical one-sided junction, either

$$N_A \gg N_D, \quad i \approx i_p \gg i_n, \quad Q = Q_p \gg Q_n, \quad \tau_T \approx \tau_p$$

or

$$N_D \gg N_A, \quad i \approx i_n \gg i_p, \quad Q = Q_n \gg Q_p, \quad \tau_T \approx \tau_n$$

# XIII Diode voltage regulator

## i Voltage regulator

A voltage regulator is a circuit designed to provide a constant dc voltage between its output terminals.

- A regulator with output $V_O$ is called $V_O$-regulator.
- Change range in output voltage divided by input voltage is called line regulation, typically specified in mV/V.
- Change in output voltage relative to configuration with no load divided by load current is called load regulation, typically specified in mV/mA.

## ii Forward-biased diode voltage regulator

Consider a source $V_s > 0$ with change $\Delta v_s$, whose - terminal is grounded and + terminal is connected through a control resistance $R$ to the + terminal of the first diode in a series of $n$ diodes with constant voltage-drop $V_C < \frac{V_s}{n}$ connected + to -, the - terminal of the last diode is grounded, and the + terminal of the first diode is the output voltage $v_O$ connected to a load resistance $R_L$ whose other terminal is grounded.

With no load connected, use the constant-voltage-drop model to obtain the bias voltage $V_D = V_O$ and current $I_D$:

$$V_D = V_O = nV_C$$
$$I_D = \frac{V_s - V_O}{R}$$

Thus each diode has incremental resistance $r_d$:

$$r_d = \frac{V_T}{I_D}$$

And the series of diode has total incremental resistance:

$$r = nr_d$$

This resistance $r$ and control resistance $R_C$ forms a voltage divider. The change $\Delta v_O$ is

$$\Delta v_O = \Delta v_s \frac{r}{r + R}$$

The line regulation is

$$\frac{\Delta v_O}{V_s} = \frac{\Delta v_s}{V_s}\frac{r}{r+R},$$

that is, $\frac{r}{r+R}$ times the line regulation of the input source.

Under load $R_L \gg r$, the current draws by it, i.e., the decrease in current through the diode series, is approximately:

$$I_L = \frac{V_O}{R_L} = \frac{nV_C}{R_L},$$

Thus the change in output voltage $\Delta v_O$ is:

$$\Delta v_O = -I_L r = -\frac{nV_C r}{R_L}$$

the voltage across each diode decreases by:

$$\frac{V_C r}{R_L}$$

and the load regulation is

$$\frac{\Delta v_O}{I_L} = -r$$

### iii Zener diode voltage regulator

Consider a source $V_s > 0$ with change $\Delta v_s$, whose - terminal is grounded and + terminal is connected through a control resistance $R$ to the - terminal of a zener diode, the + terminal of the zener diode is grounded, and the - terminal of the zener diode is the output voltage $v_O$ connected to a load resistance $R_L$ whose other terminal is grounded. The zener diode is specified to have $V_{ZT}$ at test reverse current $I_{ZT}$ and incremental resistance $r_z$ and knee current $I_{ZK} < I_Z$.

First, solve

$$V_{ZT} = V_{Z0} + r_z I_{ZT}$$

for $V_{Z0}$.

With no load connected, thus the bias current $I_Z$ through and bias voltage $V_Z = V_O$ across the zener diode is given by

$$I_Z = \frac{V_s - V_{Z0}}{R + r_z}$$

$$V_Z = V_O = V_{Z0} + r_z I_Z$$

The incremental resistance $r_z$ and control resistance $R$ forms a voltage divider. The change $\Delta v_O$ is

$$\Delta v_O = \Delta v_s \frac{r_z}{r_z + R}$$

The line regulation is

$$\frac{\Delta v_O}{V_s} = \frac{\Delta v_s}{V_s}\frac{r_z}{r_z + R},$$

that is, $\frac{r_z}{r_z + R}$ times the line regulation of the input source.

Under load $R_L \gg r_z$, the current draws by it, i.e., the decrease in current through the zener diode, is approximately:

$$I_L = \frac{V_O}{R_L}$$

Thus the change in output voltage $\Delta v_O$ is:

$$\Delta v_O = -I_L r_z = -\frac{V_O r_z}{R_L}$$

and the load regulation is

$$\frac{\Delta v_O}{I_L} = -r_z$$

However, if $I_Z - I_L < I_{ZK}$, the diode must be cut off instead of in the breakdown region, and

$$V_O = V_s \frac{R_L}{R_L + R}$$

$$\Delta v_O = \Delta v_s \frac{R_L}{R_L + R}$$

The condition for the zener diode to operate in the breakdown region assuming the zener model at the knee is

$$I_Z - I_L \geq I_{ZK}$$

that is,

$$\frac{V_s - (V_{Z0} + r_z I_{ZK})}{R} - \frac{V_{Z0} + r_z I_{ZK}}{R_L} \geq I_{ZK}$$

# XIV Diode rectifier

## i DC power supply

A dc power supply delivers a dc voltage, usually in the range of 3 V to 20 V, to a load circuit, from a high-voltage sinusoidal ac power-line circuit, which consists of the following blocks:

1. A transformer to lower the voltage.
2. A rectifier to convert the input sinusoidal to a unipolar output. Its pulsating nature makes it unsuitable as a dc source for electronic circuits.
3. A filter to reduce high-frequency component. The output of the filter still contains a time-dependent component called ripple.
4. A voltage regulator to reduce change.
5. The load circuit.

### ii Half-wave rectifier

A half-wave rectifier uses alternate half-cycles of the input sinusoidal and consists of a sinusoidal input voltage $v_S = V_S \sin(\omega t + \varphi)$ with $V_S > V_D$ and a diode, where the - terminal of $v_S$ is grounded, the + terminal of $v_S$ is connected to the + terminal of the diode, and the - terminal of the diode is the output voltage $v_O$. Assuming constant voltage drop $V_D$ for forward-biased voltage $\geq V_D$ and cut off for forward-biased voltage $< V_D$ or reverse bias, the output voltage is:

$$v_O = \max\{0, v_S - V_D\}$$

At $v_S = -v_S$, the reverse voltage across the diode is the peak inverse voltage (PIV) $V_S$.

### iii Full-wave rectifier with center-tapped transformer

A full-wave rectifier uses both halves of the input sinusoidal and consists of a center-tapped secondary winding of the transformer where the center tap is grounded to provide two equal input voltages $v_S = V_S \sin(\omega t + \varphi)$ with $V_S > V_D$ and two diodes, where the + terminal of one input and the - terminal of the other are connected to the + terminals of the two diodes $D_1, D_2$, and the - terminals of the two diodes are connected together as the output voltage $v_O$. The voltage across $D_1$ (the + terminal relative to the - terminal) is $v_S - v_O$, and the voltage across $D_2$ (the + terminal relative to the - terminal) is $-v_S - v_O$. Assuming constant voltage drop $V_D$ for forward-biased voltage $\geq V_D$ and cut off for forward-biased voltage $< V_D$ or reverse bias,

- when $v_S > V_D$, $D_1$ is forward-biased with voltage $V_D$ (the + terminal relative to the - terminal) and $D_2$ is cut off;
- when $v_S < V_D$, $D_2$ is forward-biased with voltage $V_D$ (the + terminal relative to the - terminal) and $D_1$ is cut off.

Thus, the output voltage is:

$$v_O = \max\{0, |v_S| - V_D\}$$

- At $v_S = V_S$, the reverse voltage across $D_2$ is the peak inverse voltage (PIV)

$$v_S + v_O = V_S + V_S - V_D = 2V_s - V_D$$

- At $v_S = -V_S$, the reverse voltage across $D_1$ is the peak inverse voltage (PIV)

$$v_O - v_S = V_S - V_D + V_S = 2V_s - V_D$$

### iv (Four-diode) bridge rectifier

This circuit is a full-wave rectifier that does not require a center-tapped transformer, but requires four diodes, and is called bridge because of the similarity of its configuration

to that of the Wheatstone bridge. It consists of a sinusoidal input voltage $v_S = V_S \sin(\omega t + \varphi)$ with $V_S > 2V_D$ and four diodes, where the + terminal of $v_S$ is connected to the - terminal of diode $D_1$ and the + terminal of diode $D_4$, the - terminal of $v_S$ is connected to the + terminal of diode $D_3$ and the - terminal of diode $D_2$, the + terminals of $D_2$ and $D_4$ are connected to ground, and the - terminals of $D_1$ and $D_3$ are connected together as the output voltage $v_O$. Assuming constant voltage drop $V_D$ for forward-biased voltage $\geq V_D$ and cut off for forward-biased voltage $< V_D$ or reverse bias,

- when $v_S > 2V_D$, $D_1, D_2$ are forward-biased with voltage $V_D$ (the + terminal relative to the - terminal) and $D_3, D_4$ are cut off;
- when $v_S < -2V_D$, $D_3, D_4$ are forward-biased with voltage $V_D$ (the + terminal relative to the - terminal) and $D_1, D_2$ are cut off.

Thus, the output voltage is:

$$v_O = \max\{0, |v_S| - 2V_D\}$$

- At $v_S = -V_S$, the reverse voltages across $D_1$ and $D_2$ are the peak inverse voltage (PIV)
$$V_D + v_O = V_D + V_S - 2V_D = V_S - V_D$$
- At $v_S = V_S$, the reverse voltages across $D_3$ and $D_4$ are the peak inverse voltage (PIV)
$$V_D + v_O = V_D + V_S - 2V_D = V_S - V_D$$

# XV (Enhance-mode) MOSFET (Metal-oxide-semiconductor field-effect transistor)

## i Physical structure of NMOS (transistor)/n-channel MOSFET/FET

An NMOS consists of a slightly doped p-typr substrate with width $W$, with a metal contact below forming the substrate, body, or bulk (B) terminal, two heavily doped n-type regions, $n^+$ source and $n^+$ drain regions, embedded onto the substrate in the left and right symmetrically, with the same width as the substrate, and with distance $L$ between the two regions called channel length, each with a metal contact on top forming source (S) and drain (D) terminals respectively, and a silicon dioxide $SiO_2$ or similar oxide layer of thickness $t_{ox}$ on top of the three region contacting all of them but not their metal contact with the same width as the substrate, with a metal contact on top forming the gate (G) terminal, also called gate electrode. Thus, the FET is symmetrical.

The substrate forms pn junctions with the source and drain regions, which are kept reverse biased at all times. Assume that the body has no effect on the device operation, and we can treat the MOSFET as a three-terminal device, with the terminals being the gate (G), the source (S), and the drain (D). We define the voltage relative to the source:

$v_{GS} = v_G - v_S$ is the gate-to-source voltage, and $v_{DS} = v_D - v_S$ is the drain-to-source voltage. The area of the substrate just under the gate is called channel region, which has length $L$ and width $W$.

We will be referring to NMOS unless otherwise specified.

### ii Cutoff region

When $v_{GS} < V_t$ where $V_t > 0$ is the threshold voltage, it acts as two back-to-back diodes in series between drain and source, which prevent current conduction from drain to source when a voltage $v_{DS}$ is applied, called cutoff region. The high resistance between source and drain is about $10^{12}$ Ohm.

### iii Inducing n-channel

When $v_{GS} \geq V_t$ called turn-on condition, holes are repelled from the channel region and pushed downward into the substrate, forming a carrier-depletion region, while free electrons from the $n^+$ source and drain regions are attracted and accumulated in the channel region, inverting the substrate surface from p type to n type, which connects the two $n^+$ regions. This n-type channel, under the oxide layer and on top of the carrier-depletion region, is called n-channel or induced channel. Free electrons can flow through it and conduct between source and drain. Thus free electrons are called majority carrier of NMOS.

The gate metal and the channel region form a parallel-plate capacitor with the oxide layer acting as the capacitor dielectric. An electric field thus develops downwards. The capacitance is

$$C_{ox} = \frac{\varepsilon_{ox}}{t_{ox}}$$

where $\varepsilon_{ox}$ is the permittivity of the oxide, which for $SiO_2$ is $3.9\varepsilon_0 = 3.9 \times 8.85 \times 10^{-12}$ F/m $= 3.45 \times 10^{-11}$ F/m.

The excess of $v_{GS}$ over $V_t$:

$$v_{OV} = v_{GS} - V_t$$

is called the effective voltage or the overdrive voltage. And the free electron charges in the channel region is

$$Q = -C_{ox} W L v_{OV}$$

and the linear charge density along $L$ is

$$\frac{Q}{L} = -C_{ox} W v_{OV}$$

### iv Linear approximation of triode region under small drain-to-source voltage

When $v_{GS} \geq V_t$, apply a small $v_{DS}$ (e.g., 50 mv or so) between drain and source such that $\left|v_{DS}\right| \ll v_{OV}$ and that we can assume that the voltage between the gate and any point along the channel region remains approximately constant.

With drain-to-source direction as positive direction, the electric field along $L$ is

$$E = \frac{v_{DS}}{L}$$

The drift velocity of free electrons in the channel region is

$$v_n = -\mu_n E$$

The (drift) current is

$$\begin{aligned} i_{DS} &= \frac{Q}{L} v_n \\ &= C_{ox} W v_{OV} \mu_n E \\ &= \mu_n C_{ox} \frac{W}{L} v_{OV} v_{DS} \end{aligned}$$

Thus the channel conductivity $g_{DS}$ and resistance $r_{DS}$ are

$$g_{DS} = \frac{i_{DS}}{v_{DS}} = \mu_n C_{ox} \frac{W}{L} v_{OV}$$

$$r_{DS} = \frac{1}{g_{DS}} = \frac{1}{\mu_n C_{ox} \frac{W}{L} v_{OV}}$$

The process transconductance parameter $k_n'$ is defined as

$$k_n' = \mu_n C_{ox}$$

since it's determined by the process technology, which has the dimension of A/V$^2$.

The transistor aspect ratio is defined as

$$\frac{W}{L}$$

The MOSFET transconductance parameter $k_n$ is defined as

$$k_n = k_n' \frac{W}{L}$$

And the current equation is

$$i_{DS} = k_n v_{OV} v_{DS}$$

### v Triode region

When $v_{GS} \geq V_t$, apply a $v_{DS} < v_{OV}$, it appears as a voltage drop across the length of the channel. At the source end,

$$v_{GS} - V_t = v_{OV}$$

At the drain end

$$v_{GD} - V_t = v_{OV} - v_{DS}$$

The induced channel acquires a tapered shape, and the charge in it is proportional to the channel cross-sectional area

$$\frac{1}{2}\left(v_{OV} + (v_{OV} - v_{DS})\right) = v_{OV} - \frac{1}{2}v_{DS}$$

The current equation becomes

$$i_{DS} = k_n\left(v_{OV} - \frac{1}{2}v_{DS}\right)v_{DS} = k_n\left(v_{OV}v_{DS} - \frac{1}{2}{v_{DS}}^2\right)$$

The linear current equation mentioned earlier is an approximation of it using $v_{DS} \ll v_{OV}$.

The $0 < v_{DS} < v_{OV}$ regions is called triode region.

### vi Saturation region

When $v_{GS} \geq V_t$ and $v_{DS} \geq v_{OV}$, the channel has zero depth at the drain end, called channel pinch-off, assuming the zero-depth length is negligible relative to $L$, the current saturates at

$$i_{DS} = \frac{1}{2}k_n{v_{OV}}^2$$

The voltage $v_{OV}$ is also denoted $v_{DS\text{sat}}$, called saturation voltage. The incremental output resistance is thus infinite when $v_{DS} > v_{OV}$.

Note that channel pinch-off does not mean channel blockage. Current continues to flow through the pinched-off channel. $v_{DS} - v_{DS\text{sat}}$ appears a voltage drop across the depletion region. Free electrons are swept through the depletion region towards the drain when channel region has zero depth.

### vii Saturation region channel-length modulation

When $v_{DS} > v_{OV}$, the channel length is actually less than $L$, with a portion near drain being of zero depth, i.e., depletion region, called channel-length modulation, and the current equation becomes

$$i_{DS} = \frac{1}{2}k_n{v_{OV}}^2(1 + \lambda v_{DS}),$$

where $\lambda \geq 0$ is a device parameter of the dimension of $\text{V}^{-1}$ and is inversely proportional to $L$. For device with large $L$, $\lambda$ is often negligible, while for submicron (micron = μm) scale, $\lambda$ is often large. We take $V_A = \frac{1}{\lambda}$. The voltage axis interception of the current equation is $-V_A$. We can isolate the dependence on $L$ with

$$V_A = V_A' L$$

The output resistance $r_O$ is

$$r_O = \frac{V_A}{I_{DS}'}$$

where

$$I'_{DS} = \frac{1}{2} k_n {v_{OV}}^2$$

And

$$i_{DS} = I'_{DS} + \frac{v_{DS}}{r_O}$$

### viii PMOS (transistor)/p-channel MOSFET/FET

- Physical structure: Reverse n and p in the description of NMOS.
- Convention: $v_{SD} > 0$
- Threshold voltage: $V_{tp} < 0$
- Cutoff region: $v_{SG} < -V_{tp}$, for $v_{SG} > 0$, i.e., $\left|v_{SG}\right| < \left|V_{tp}\right|$
- Turn-on condition: $v_{SG} \geq -V_{tp}$, for $v_{SG} > 0$, i.e., $\left|v_{SG}\right| \geq \left|V_{tp}\right|$
- Overdrive voltage:

$$v_{OV} = v_{SG} + V_{tp}$$

- Majority carrier: Holes
- Channel-region charge:

$$Q = C_{ox} W L v_{OV}$$

- Process transconductance parameter:

$$k'_p = \mu_p C_{ox}$$

- MOSFET Transconductance parameter:

$$k_p = k'_p \frac{W}{L}$$

- Linear triode approximation:

$$i_{SD} = k_p v_{OV} v_{SD}$$

- Triode region:

$$i_{SD} = k_p \left( v_{OV} - \frac{1}{2} v_{SD} \right) v_{SD}$$

- Saturation region (long-channel):

$$i_{SD} = \frac{1}{2} k_p {v_{OV}}^2$$

- Saturation region channel-length modulation:

$$V_A = \frac{1}{\lambda} > 0$$

$$I'_{SD} = \frac{1}{2} k_p {v_{OV}}^2$$

$$r_O = \frac{V_A}{I'_{SD}}$$

$$i_{SD} = \frac{1}{2} k_p {v_{OV}}^2 (1 + \lambda v_{SD} = I'_{SD} + \frac{v_{SD}}{r_O}$$

NMOS and PMOS are said to be complementary device.

### ix CMOS (complementary MOS)

A technology was developed that permits the fabrication of both NMOS and PMOS transistors on the same chip, called CMOS, where the NMOS transistor is built directly in the p-type substrate, and the PMOS transistor is built in a specially created n region embedded on the p-type substrate, called n well, with a thick oxide between NMOS's $n^+$ region and PMOS's $p^+$ region for isolation.

### x Circuit symbol

